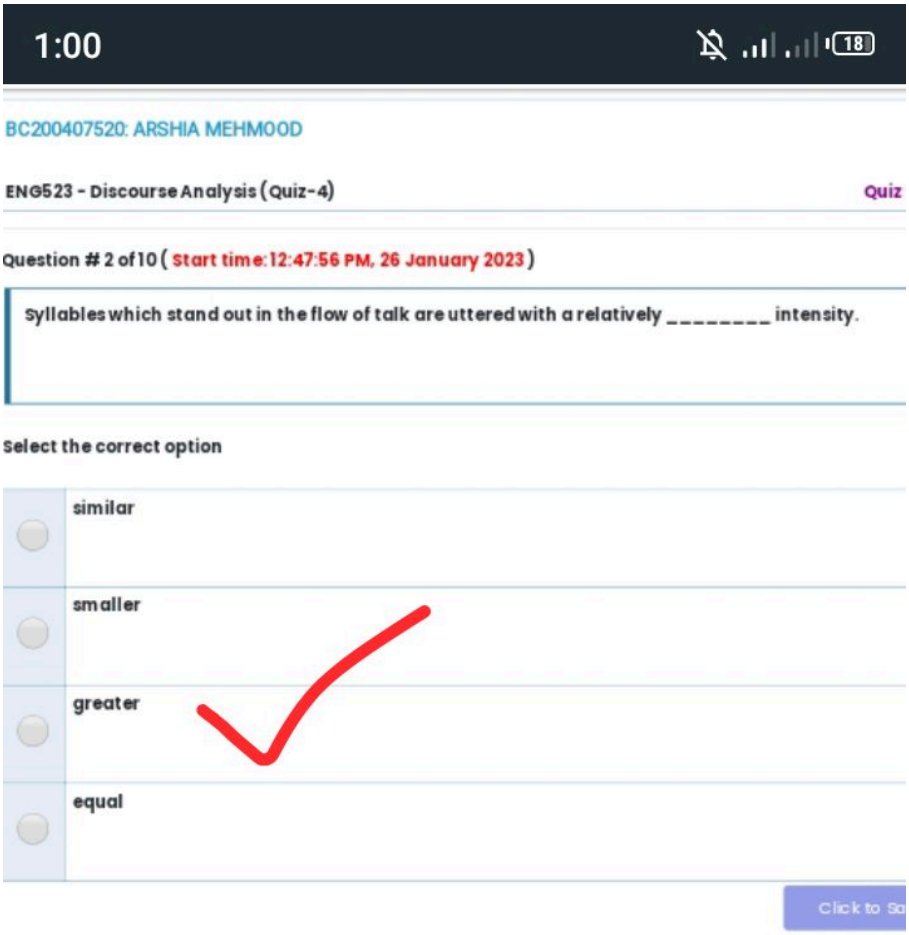
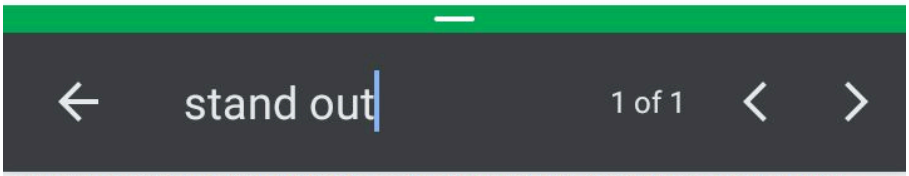




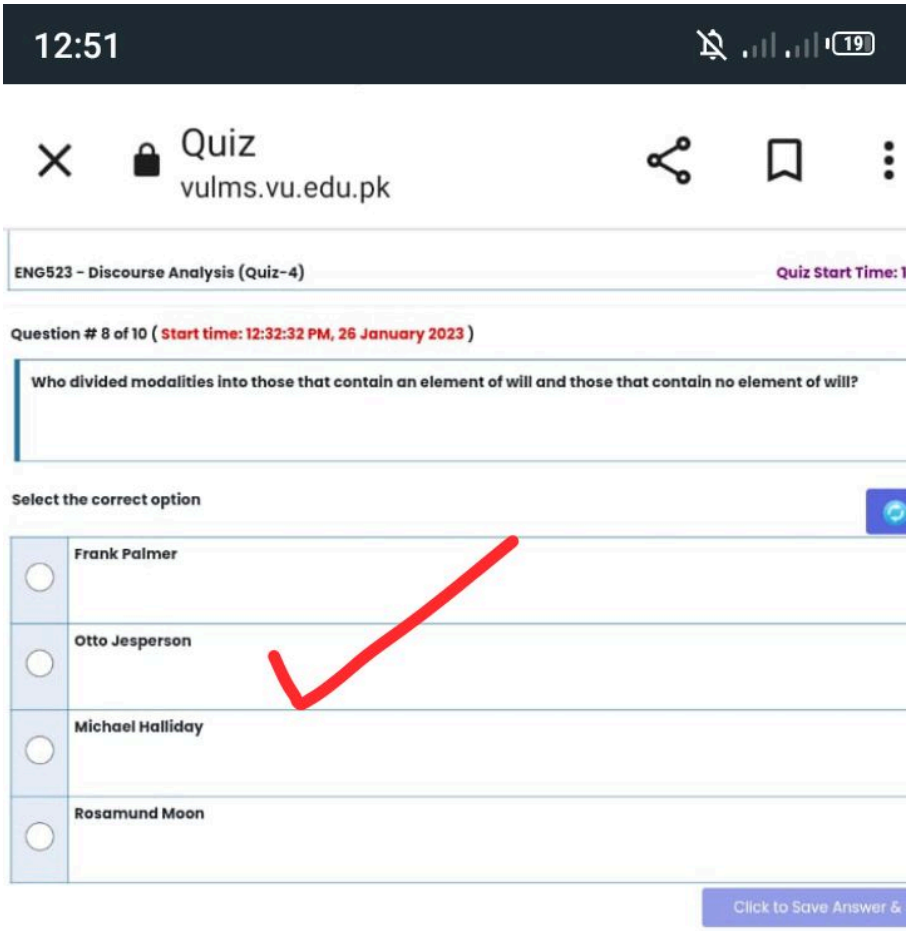
especially carefully considered deliveries such as broadcast talks, fluent reading aloud, speeches and monologues, as well as some ordinary conversation. Secondly, the concept of English as a stress-timed language, deeply rooted in theoretical and applied linguistics, has dominated approaches to the teaching of rhythm.

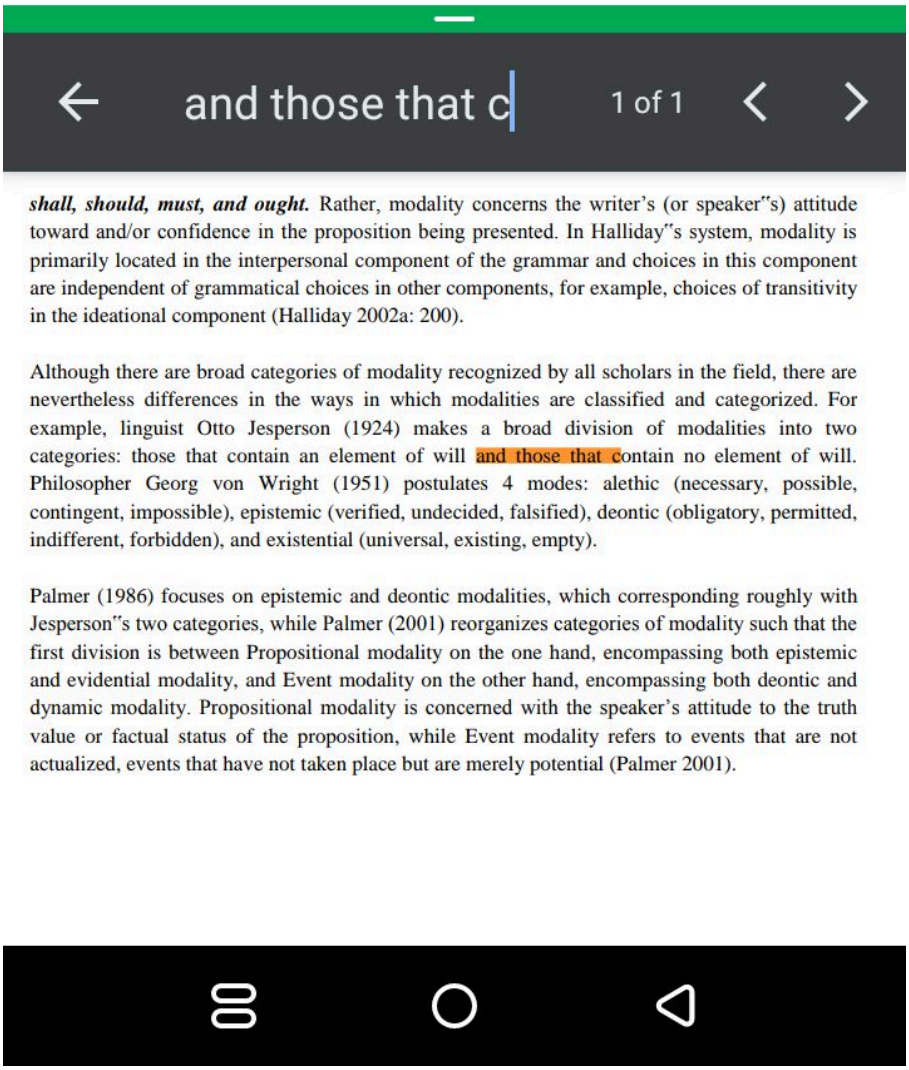
Word stress and prominence

At this point, it is useful to change our terminology slightly and introduce the term prominence. Syllables which stand out in the flow of talk will be referred to as prominent syllables. It is because the speaker has uttered them with relatively greater intensity, or duration, or pitch variation compared with surrounding syllables (and our perception of this phenomenon will usually be due to a variety of such features). It is helpful to have this special term, prominence, so as not to confuse word stress, which words bear in their citation forms (sometimes called their isolate pronunciations), with what concerns us most here: the choice of the speaker to make certain words salient by giving prominence to syllables. This is therefore a more precise use of the term prominence than is found in some sources (e.g. Cruttenden 1986).

Word stress, as it is traditionally understood, and **prominence**, as we shall use it here, are two distinct levels. Where they overlap, of course, is in the fact that prominences may not be distributed just anywhere in the word, but may only fall on certain syllables. Where two prominences can occur in the same word, as is often the case with a whole class of words such as IApanESE, UNiVERsal, conGRAtuLAtions, etc., the second will always be the stronger.

Stress is a large topic and despite the fact that it has been extensively studied for a very long time, there remain many areas of disagreement or lack of understanding. So, it is important to consider what factors make a syllable count as stressed. Stress is basically a prominence of syllable in terms of loudness, length, pitch and quality and all of them work together in order to make a syllable stressed. As discussed above, two types of stress are important. Firstly, stress on

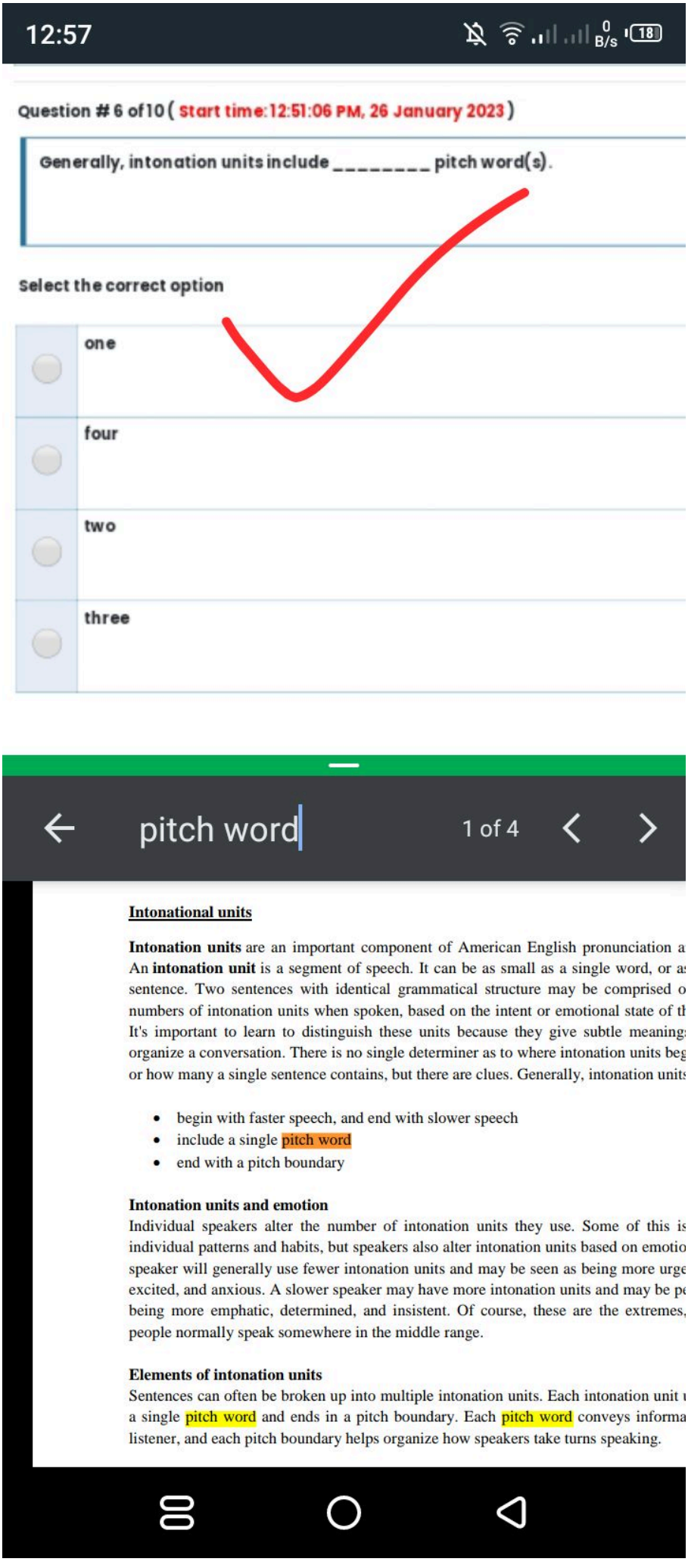




shall, should, must, and ought. Rather, modality concerns the writer's (or speaker"s) attitude toward and/or confidence in the proposition being presented. In Halliday"s system, modality is primarily located in the interpersonal component of the grammar and choices in this component are independent of grammatical choices in other components, for example, choices of transitivity in the ideational component (Halliday 2002a: 200).

Although there are broad categories of modality recognized by all scholars in the field, there are nevertheless differences in the ways in which modalities are classified and categorized. For example, linguist Otto Jesperson (1924) makes a broad division of modalities into two categories: those that contain an element of will and those that contain no element of will. Philosopher Georg von Wright (1951) postulates 4 modes: alethic (necessary, possible, contingent, impossible), epistemic (verified, undecided, falsified), deontic (obligatory, permitted, indifferent, forbidden), and existential (universal, existing, empty).

Palmer (1986) focuses on epistemic and deontic modalities, which corresponding roughly with Jesperson"s two categories, while Palmer (2001) reorganizes categories of modality such that the first division is between Propositional modality on the one hand, encompassing both epistemic and evidential modality, and Event modality on the other hand, encompassing both deontic and dynamic modality. Propositional modality is concerned with the speaker's attitude to the truth value or factual status of the proposition, while Event modality refers to events that are not actualized, events that have not taken place but are merely potential (Palmer 2001).


12:57
Question # 6 of 10 (Start time: 12:51:06 PM, 26 January 2023)
Generally, intonation units include _____ pitch word(s).
Select the correct option
one
four
two
three
pitch word
1 of 4
Intonational units
Intonation units are an important component of American English pronunciation a
An intonation unit is a segment of speech. It can be as small as a single word, or a
sentence. Two sentences with identical grammatical structure may be comprised o
numbers of intonation units when spoken, based on the intent or emotional state of t
It's important to learn to distinguish these units because they give subtle meaning
organize a conversation. There is no single determiner as to where intonation units beg
or how many a single sentence contains, but there are clues. Generally, intonation unit
begin with faster speech, and end with slower speech
include a single pitch word
end with a pitch boundary
Intonation units and emotion
Individual speakers alter the number of intonation units they use. Some of this is
individual patterns and habits, but speakers also alter intonation units based on emotio
speaker will generally use fewer intonation units and may be seen as being more urge
excited, and anxious. A slower speaker may have more intonation units and may be pe
being more emphatic, determined, and insistent. Of course, these are the extremes,
people normally speak somewhere in the middle range.
Elements of intonation units
Sentences can often be broken up into multiple intonation units. Each intonation unit
a single pitch word and ends in a pitch boundary. Each pitch word conveys informa
listener, and each pitch boundary helps organize how speakers take turns speaking.

12:50

Question # 8 of 10 (Start time: 12:33:53 PM, 26 January 2023)

English is often called a/an _____ language.

Select the correct option

- VOS
- SVO
- SOV
- OVS

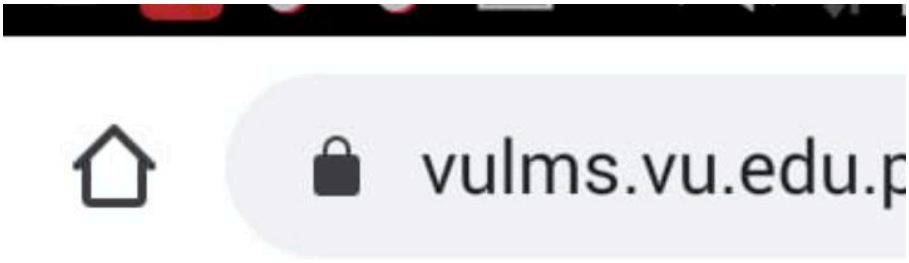
English is 2 of 3

structure of clauses in that language, i.e., where subjects, objects and adverbials are placed in relation to the verb, and what options are available for rearranging the most typical sequences. Discourse analysts are interested in the implications of these different structural options for the creation of text, and, as always, it is from the examination of natural data that patterns of use are seen to emerge. Some of the structural options frequently found in natural data are ignored or underplayed in language teaching (especially those found in spoken data, which are often dismissed as degraded or bad 'style'), probably owing to the continued dominance of standards taken from the written code. If the desire is to be faithful to data, grammar teaching may have to reorient some of its structural descriptions, while others already dealt with in sentence level exercises may be adequately covered in traditional teaching and simply adjusted to discourse-oriented approaches. English is what is often called an 'SVO' language, in that the declarative clause requires a verb at its center, a subject before it and any object after it. This is simply a labeling device which enables comparisons to be made with declarative realizations in different languages, some of which will be 'VSO' or 'SOV' languages.

There are in English a variety of ways in which the basic clause elements of subject, verb, and complement/object, adverbial can be rearranged by putting different elements at the beginning of the clause. These ways of bringing different elements to the front are called fronting devices.

In English the Theme, the 'point of departure' for the clause, is also one of the means by which the clause is organized as a message. Theme is the 'glue' that structures and binds the ideational and interpersonal meanings. In studies of Theme in children's writing and in writing in the workplace, the choice and representation of Theme is seen as a crucial element related to the success of a text (Martin, 1985, 1992, 1993; Martin and Rothery, 1993; Berry, 1995, 1996; Stainton, 1996, amongst others). The belief that an understanding of the way in which Theme works can be usefully incorporated into pedagogy is the motivation behind this and many other studies of Theme.

Theme, then, is seen to play a crucial role in focusing and organizing the message and to



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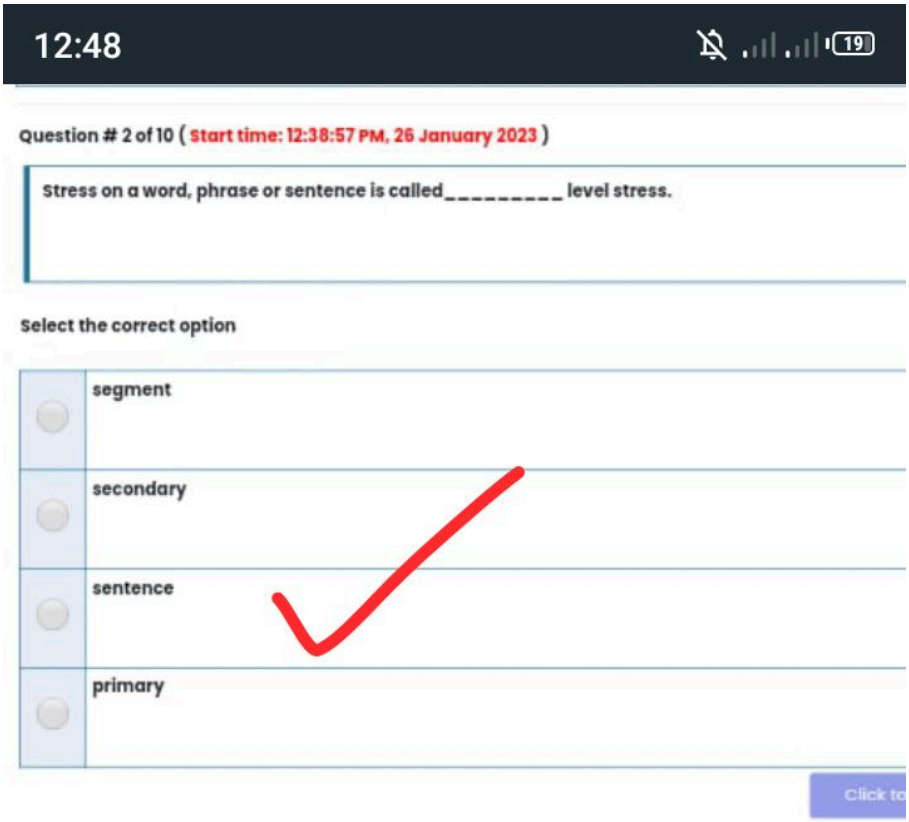
ENG523 - Discourse Analysis (Quiz-4)

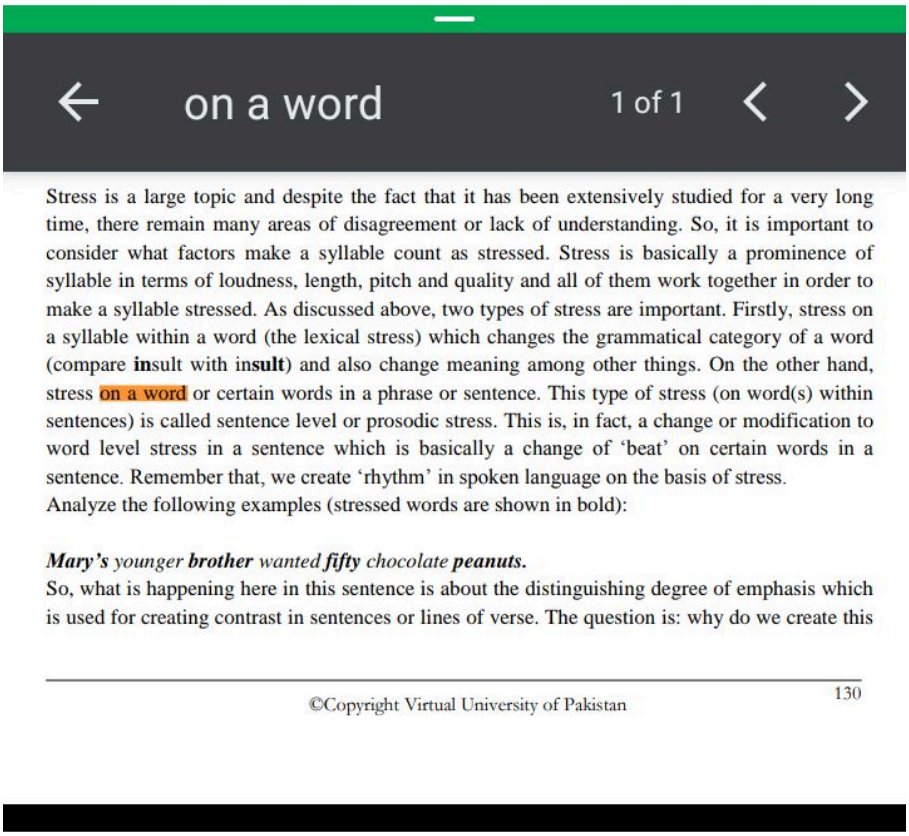
Question # 2 of 10 (Start time: 12:38:57 PM, 26 January 2023)

Stress on a word, phrase or sentence is called_____ level stress.

Select the correct option

- segment
- secondary
- sentence
- primary

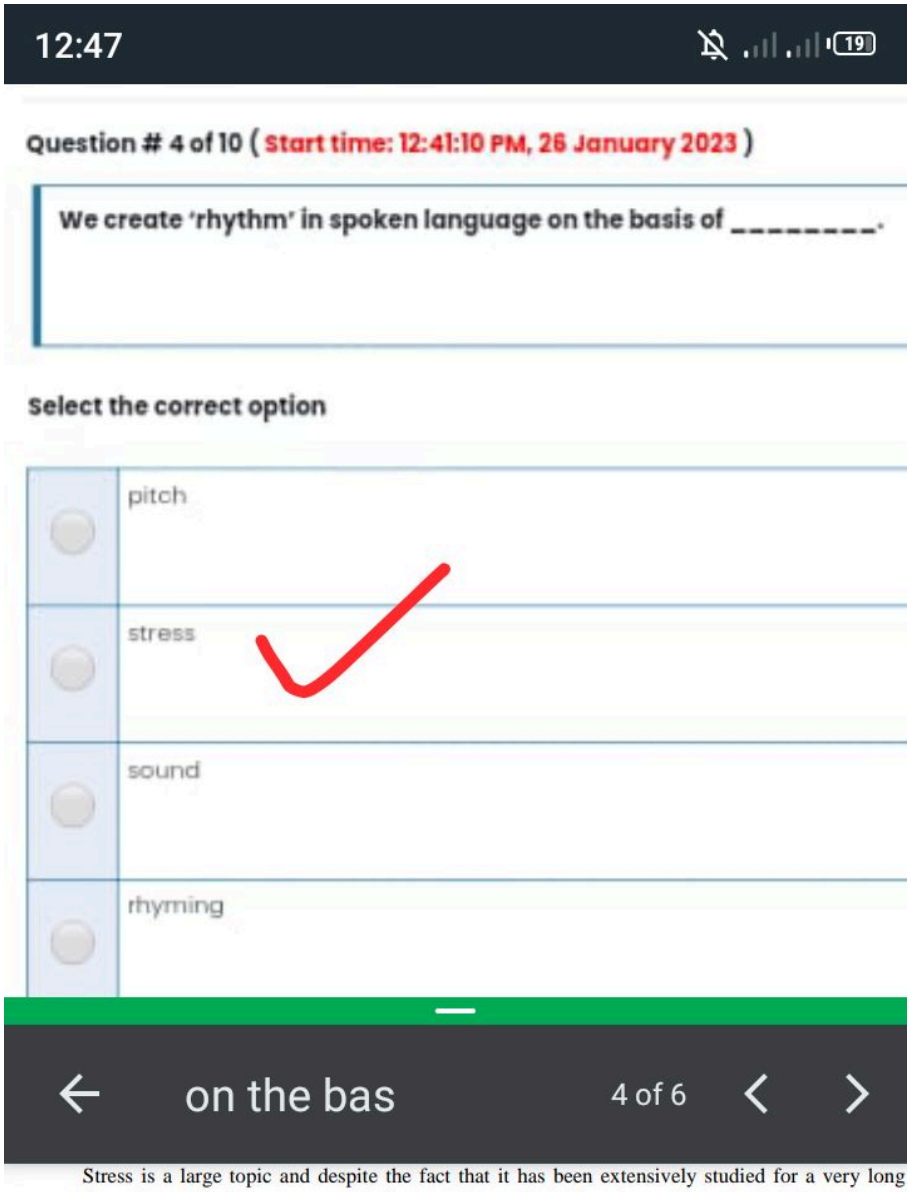




Stress is a large topic and despite the fact that it has been extensively studied for a very long time, there remain many areas of disagreement or lack of understanding. So, it is important to consider what factors make a syllable count as stressed. Stress is basically a prominence of syllable in terms of loudness, length, pitch and quality and all of them work together in order to make a syllable stressed. As discussed above, two types of stress are important. Firstly, stress on a syllable within a word (the lexical stress) which changes the grammatical category of a word (compare **in**sult with in**sult**) and also change meaning among other things. On the other hand, stress on a word or certain words in a phrase or sentence. This type of stress (on word(s) within sentences) is called sentence level or prosodic stress. This is, in fact, a change or modification to word level stress in a sentence which is basically a change of 'beat' on certain words in a sentence. Remember that, we create 'rhythm' in spoken language on the basis of stress.
Analyze the following examples (stressed words are shown in bold):

Mary's *younger* ***brother*** *wanted* ***fifty*** *chocolate* ***peanuts.***
So, what is happening here in this sentence is about the distinguishing degree of emphasis which is used for creating contrast in sentences or lines of verse. The question is: why do we create this

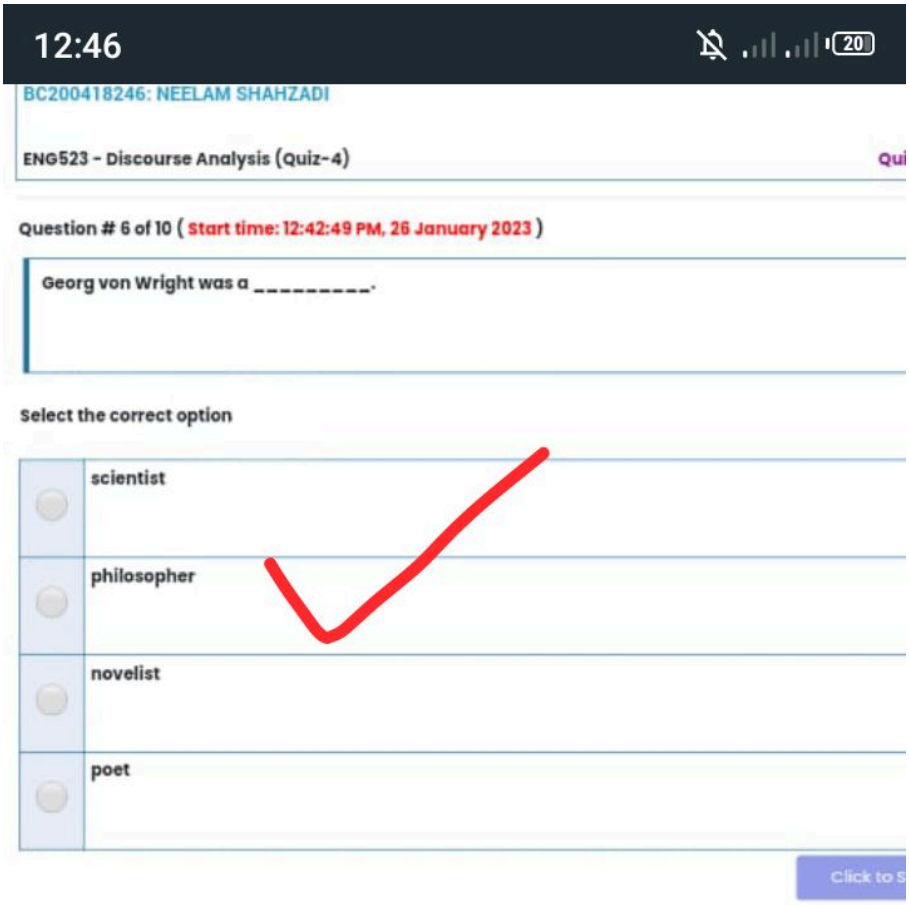
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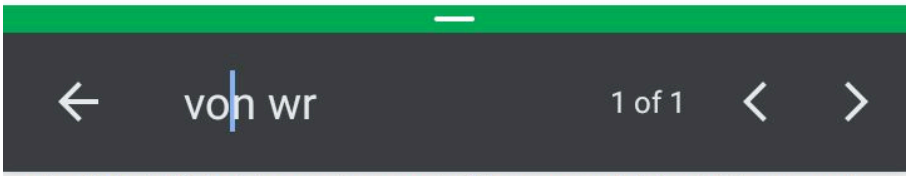


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primarily located in the interpersonal component of the grammar and choices in this component are independent of grammatical choices in other components, for example, choices of transitivity in the ideational component (Halliday 2002a: 200).

Although there are broad categories of modality recognized by all scholars in the field, there are nevertheless differences in the ways in which modalities are classified and categorized. For example, linguist Otto Jesperson (1924) makes a broad division of modalities into two categories: those that contain an element of will and those that contain no element of will. Philosopher Georg von Wright (1951) postulates 4 modes: alethic (necessary, possible, contingent, impossible), epistemic (verified, undecided, falsified), deontic (obligatory, permitted, indifferent, forbidden), and existential (universal, existing, empty).

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12:07

ENG523 - Discourse Analysis (Quiz-4)

Question # 8 of 10 (Start time: 12:00:30 PM, 26 January 2023)

A representative corpus must enable analysis of the features _____.

Select the correct option

- within text
- across text types
- all of the given options
- across texts



representative co 1 of 1

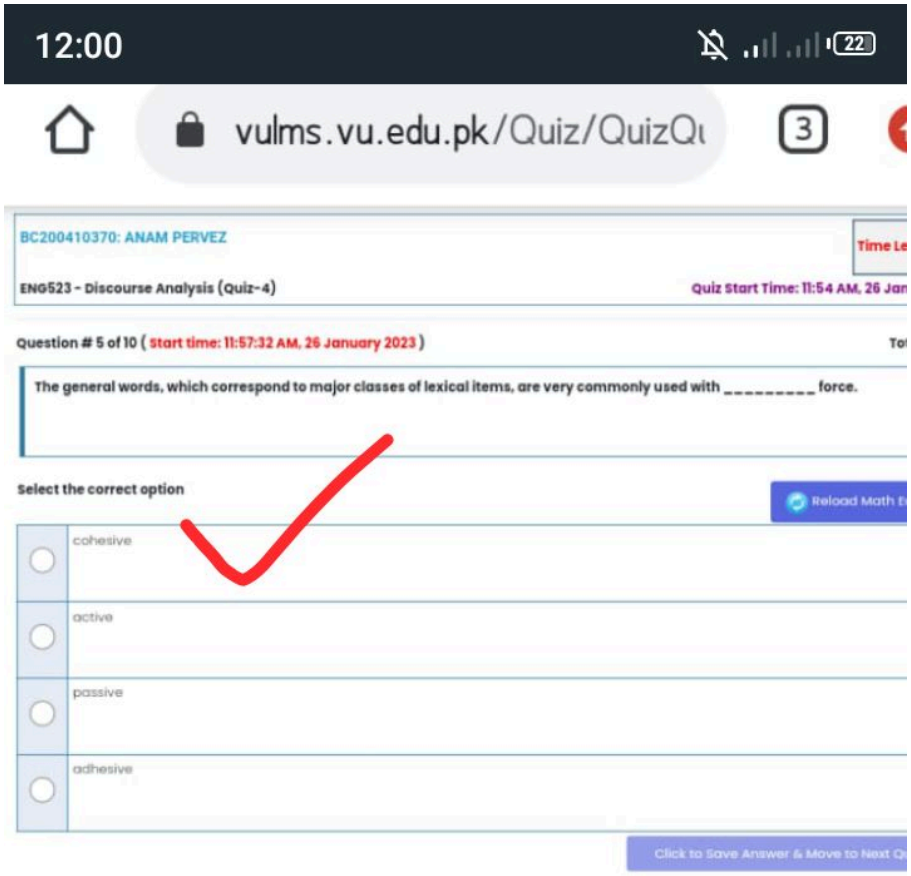
of individual texts. If, for example, the corpus aims to represent a particular genre, and instances of the genre are typically long, or short, this needs to be reflected in the collection of texts that make up the corpus.

The **representativeness of the corpus** further depends on the extent to which it includes the range of linguistic distribution in the population. That is, different linguistic features are differently distributed (within texts, across texts, across text types), and a representative corpus must enable analysis of these various distributions.

A corpus, then, needs to aim for both representativeness and balance, both of which, as Kennedy (1998) points out, are in the end matters of judgment and approximation. All of this cannot be

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done at the outset, however. The compilation of the corpus needs to take place in a cyclical fashion with the original design being based on theoretical and pilot study analyses, followed by the collection of the texts, investigation of the discourse features under investigation, then, in turn, revision of the design (Biber 1994). As Reppen and Simpson (2002) explain 'no corpus can be everything to everyone'. Any corpus in the end 'is a compromise between the desirable and the feasible' (Stubbs 2004).



major cl 1 of 1

2) Synonym or near – synonym

Synonym is used to mean 'sameness of meaning' (Palmer, 1981). Lexical cohesion results from the choice of a lexical item that is in some sense synonymous with a preceding one; for example, sound with noise.

3) Superordinate

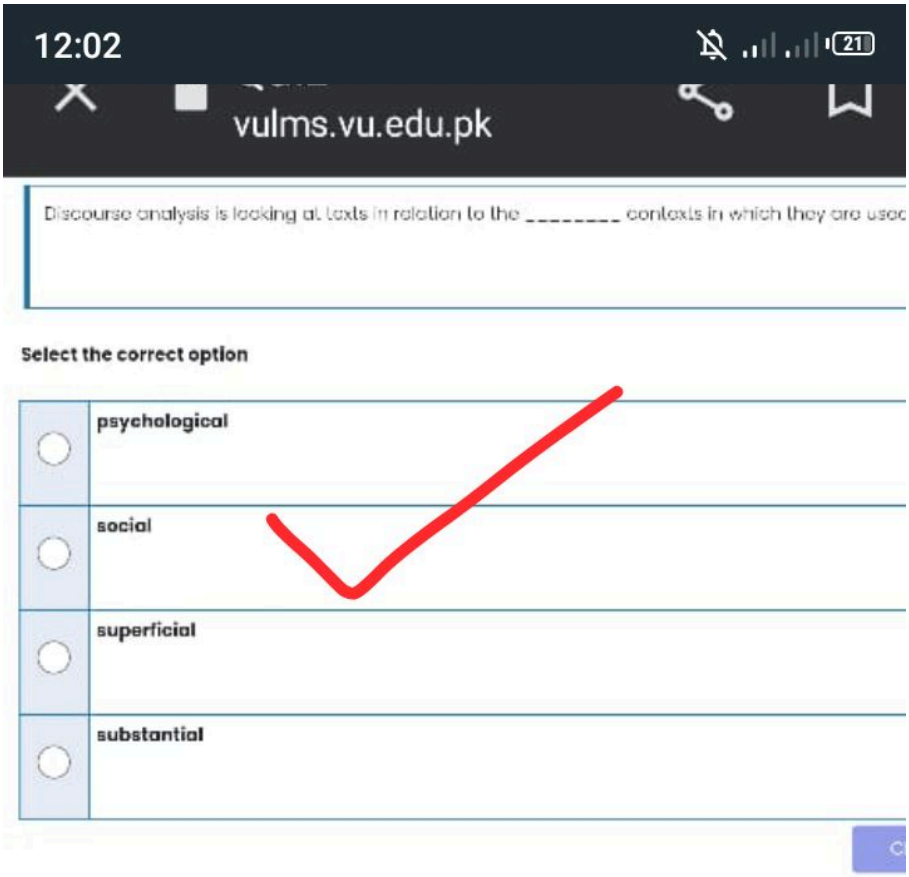
Superordinate is term for words that refer to the upper class itself (Palmer, 1981). In contrary, term for words that refer to the lower class itself is hyponym. **For example:** Henry's bought himself a new Jaguar. He practically lives in the car (Halliday and Hasan, 1976)
Here, car refers back to Jaguar; and the car is a superordinate of Jaguar.

4) General Word

The general words, which correspond to major classes of lexical items, are very commonly used with cohesive force. They are on the borderline between lexical items and substitutes. Not all general words are used cohesively; in fact, only the nouns are when it has the same referent as whatever it is presupposing, and when it is accompanied by a reference item (Halliday and Hasan, 1976: 280-1). **For example:** There's a boy climbing the old elm. That old thing isn't very safe (Halliday and Hasan, 1976: 280). Here, the reiteration takes the form of a general word thing.

Textual aspects of lexical competence

Prior to undertaking the concept of lexical competence, it is worth defining what competence is and how it has been viewed so far. The term competence has generated substantial controversy in the field of general and applied linguistics (Chomsky, 1965; Hymes, 1972). The former regarded it as a pure grammatical competence, that is, "the speaker hearer's knowledge of his language" and the latter observed that this competence was more related to communication: a normal child acquires knowledge of sentences not only as grammatical, but also as appropriate. He or she acquires competence as to when to speak, when not, and as to what to talk about with whom,



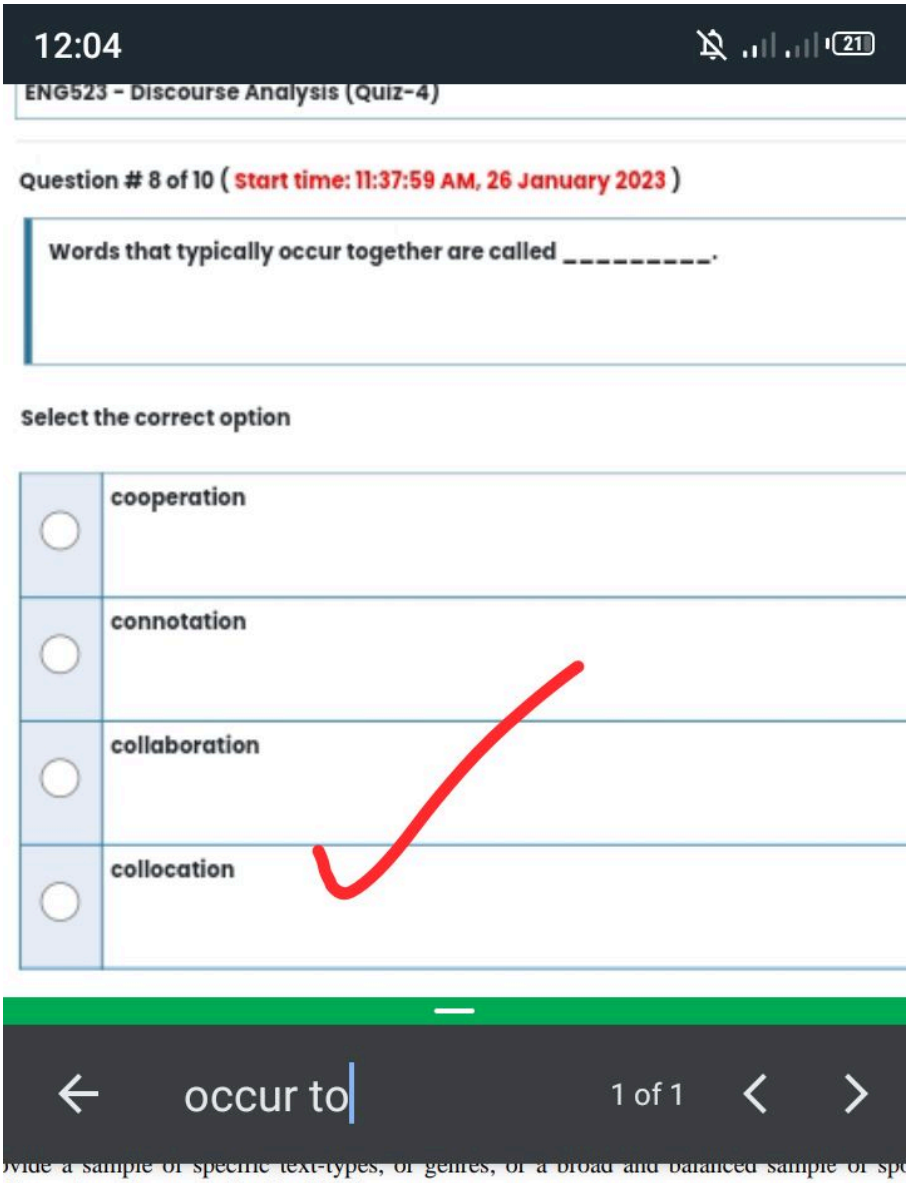
grounded in the social, cognitive and linguistic demands of academic target situations and informed by an understanding of texts and of the constraints of academic contexts. Discourse analysis is a key resource in this research agenda and has made an enormous contribution to our understanding of academic communication.

What has discourse analysis told us about EAP?

Discourse analysis is a collection of methods for studying language in action, looking at texts in relation to the social contexts in which they are used. Because language is an irreducible part of social life, connected to almost everything we do, this broad definition has been interpreted in various ways across the social sciences. In **EAP** it has tended to be a methodology which gives greater emphasis to actual texts than to institutional social practices, and has largely taken the form of focusing on particular academic genres such as the research article, the conference presentation, and the student essay.

Genre analysis can be seen as a more specific form of discourse analysis, which focuses on any element of recurrent language use, including grammar and lexis that is relevant to the analyst's interests. As a result, genre analysis sees texts as representative of wider rhetorical practices and so has the potential to offer descriptions and explanations both of texts and of the communities that use them. Genres are the recurrent uses of more or less conventionalized forms through which individuals develop relationships, establish communities and get things done using language.

Genres can therefore be seen as a kind of tacit contract between writers and readers, which influence the behavior of text producers and the expectations of receivers. By focusing on mapping typicality, genre analysis thus seeks to show what is usual in collections of texts, and so it helps to reveal underlying discourses and the preferences of disciplinary communities. These approaches are influenced by Halliday's (1994) view of language as a system of choices that link texts to particular contexts through patterns of lexico-grammatical and rhetorical features (Christie and Martin, 1997) and by Swales' (1990) observation that these recurrent choices are



ide a sample of specific text-types, or genres, or a broad and balanced sample of spo
d/or written discourse (Stubbs 2004).

> ***"Corpus studies draw on collections of texts that are usually stored and analyzed electronically. They look at the occurrence and re-occurrence of particular linguistic features to see how and where they occur in the discourse. They may look at words that typically occur together (collocations) or they may look at the frequency of particular items. Corpus studies may look at language use in general, or they may look at the use of a particular linguistic feature in a particular domain, such as spoken academic discourse, or use of the item in a particular genre, such as university tutorial discussions."***

rpora may be general or they may be specialized. A general corpus, also known as a refer
rpus: "Aims to represent language in its broadest sense and to serve as a widely avail
ource for baseline or comparative studies of general linguistic features." (Reppen
npson 2004). A **general corpus**, thus, provides sample data from which we can m
neralizations about spoken and written discourse as a whole, and frequencies of occurr
d co-occurrence of particular aspects of language in the discourse. It will not, however, te
out the language and discourse of particular genres or domain of use (unless the corpus ca
oken down into separate genres or areas of use in some way). For this, we need a ***special
rpus.***

specialized corpus, as Hunston (2002) explains is:
corpus of texts of a particular type, such as newspaper editorials, geography textbo
demic articles in a particular subject, lectures, casual conversations, essays written
dents etc. It aims to be representative of a given type of text. It is used to investig

11:54

Question # 2 of 10 (Start time: 10:05:47 AM, 26 January 2023)

When did English for Academic Purposes (EAP) emerge in the academic discipline?

Select the correct option

- 1990s
- 1970s
- 1980s
- 1960s

1980s 6 of 7

Discourse Analysis (ENG525) VU

ENGLISH FOR ACADEMIC PURPOSES AND DISCOURSE ANALYSIS

What is EAP?

English for Academic Purposes (EAP) is usually defined as teaching English with the aim of assisting learners' study or research in that language. In this sense it is a broad term, covering all areas of academic communicative practice such as pre-tertiary, undergraduate and post-graduate teaching, classroom interactions, academic publishing and curriculum issues, as well as research, student and instructional genres (e.g., Hyland, 2009a). The emergence of EAP in the 1980s, as a response to growing numbers of second language (L2) students in university courses and in a framework informed by English for specific purposes, originally produced an agenda concerned with curriculum and instruction rather than with theory and analysis.

EAP was then largely a materials and teaching-led movement focusing on texts and on the search for generic study skills, which could be integrated into language courses to make students more efficient learners. EAP has **emphasized** the rich diversity of texts, contexts and practices in which students must now operate. While it continues to be heavily involved in syllabus design and it needs analysis and materials development, EAP has moved away from purely pedagogic considerations to become a much more theoretically grounded and research informed innovativeness.

The **role** of EAP has therefore changed in response to changing conditions in the academy. The huge expansion of university places in many countries, together with an increase in full fee-paying international students to compensate for cuts in government support, has resulted in a more culturally, socially and linguistically diverse student population than ever before. **In addition**, students now take a broader and more heterogeneous mix of academic subjects. In addition to traditional single-subject or joint-honors degrees, we now find complex modular degrees and emergent 'practice-based' courses such as nursing, management and social work

11:53 22

Question # 5 of 10 (Start time: 10:10:14 AM, 26 January 2023)

The references to assumed shared worlds outside the text are called _____

Select the correct option

- exophoric
- endophoric
- cataphoric
- anaphoric

worlds 5 of 5

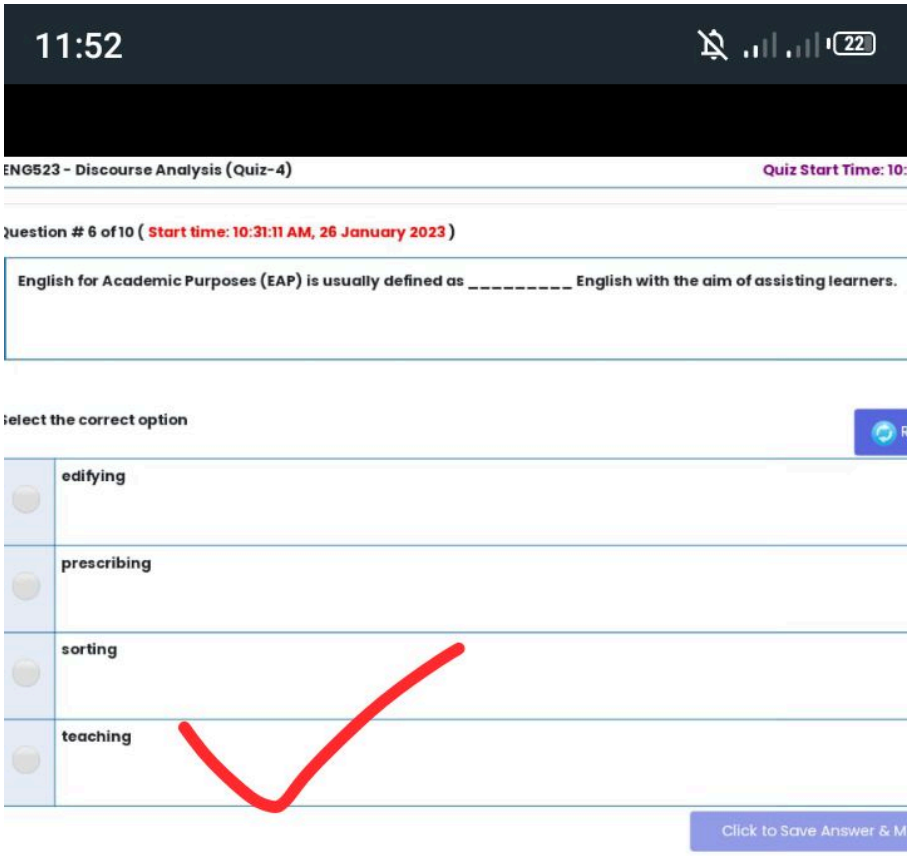
Segments of discourse or situations as a whole rather than to any one specified entity in that situation. Fox (1987) claims that reference can be successfully made (for instance, through the use of pronouns) if the referent is "in focus, in consciousness, textually evoked or high in topicality" and where it "can be operationally defined in terms of the discourse structure."

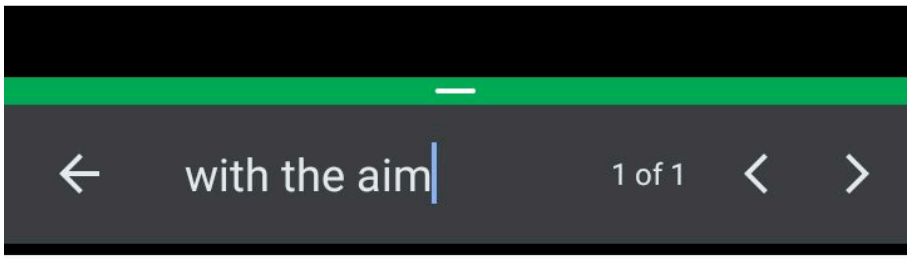
To this end, referents are often realized through anaphoric (word or phrase referring backwards in a text), cataphoric (word or phrase referring forwards in a text), and exophoric (reference to assumed shared worlds outside the text) devices and can appear as functional units in discourse segmentation.

This implies the use of language to point to something. Reference therefore has the ability to point to something within or outside a text.

Halliday and Hassan (1976) states that co-referential forms are forms which instead of being interpreted semantically in their own right, make reference to something else for their interpretation. When the interpretation is within the text, this is an „endophoric" relation but in a situation where the interpretation of the text lies outside the text, in the context of situation, the relationship is „exophoric". However, exophoric relations play no part in textual cohesion. Endophoric relations on the other hand, form cohesive ties within the text. Endophoric relations are also of two types, those which look back in the text for their interpretation (anaphoric

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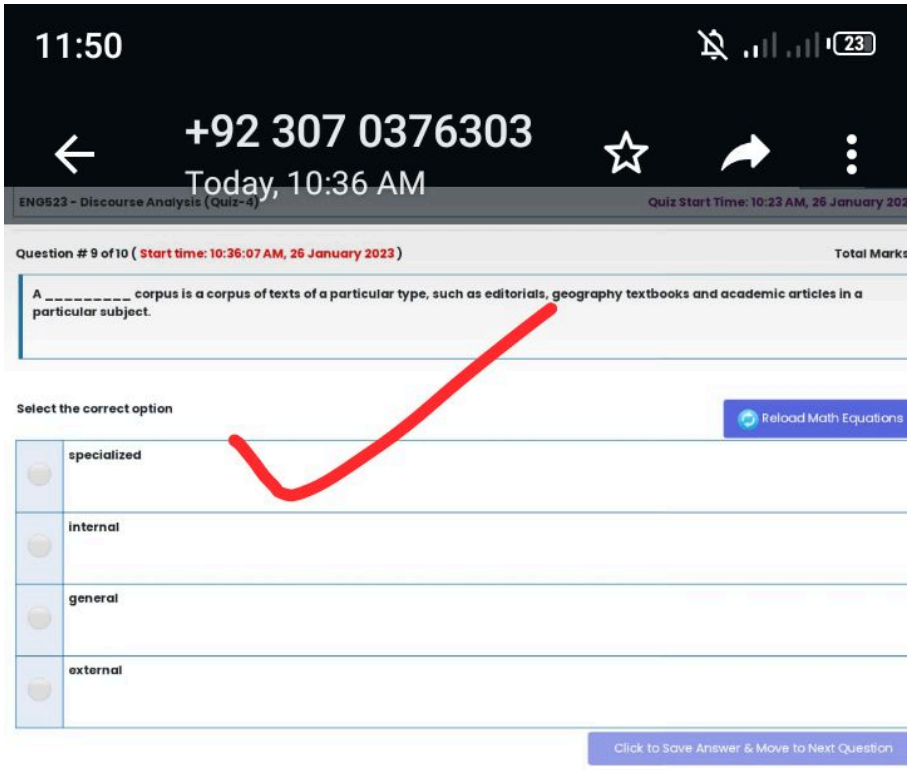
ENGLISH FOR ACADEMIC PURPOSES AND DISCOURSE ANALYSIS

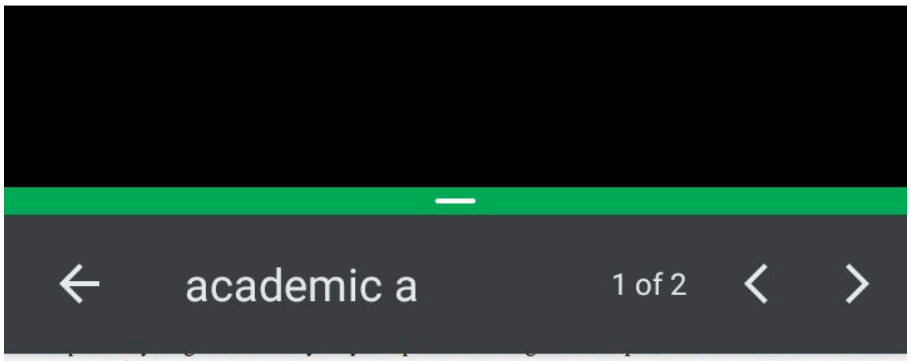
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EAP was then largely a materials and teaching-led movement focusing on texts and on the search for generic study skills, which could be integrated into language courses to make students more efficient learners. EAP has **emphasized** the rich diversity of texts, contexts and practices in which students must now operate. While it continues to be heavily involved in syllabus design and it needs analysis and materials development, EAP has moved away from purely pedagogic considerations to become a much more theoretically grounded and research informed innovativeness.

The **role** of EAP has therefore changed in response to changing conditions in the academy. The huge expansion of university places in many countries, together with an increase in full fee-paying international students to compensate for cuts in government support, has resulted in a



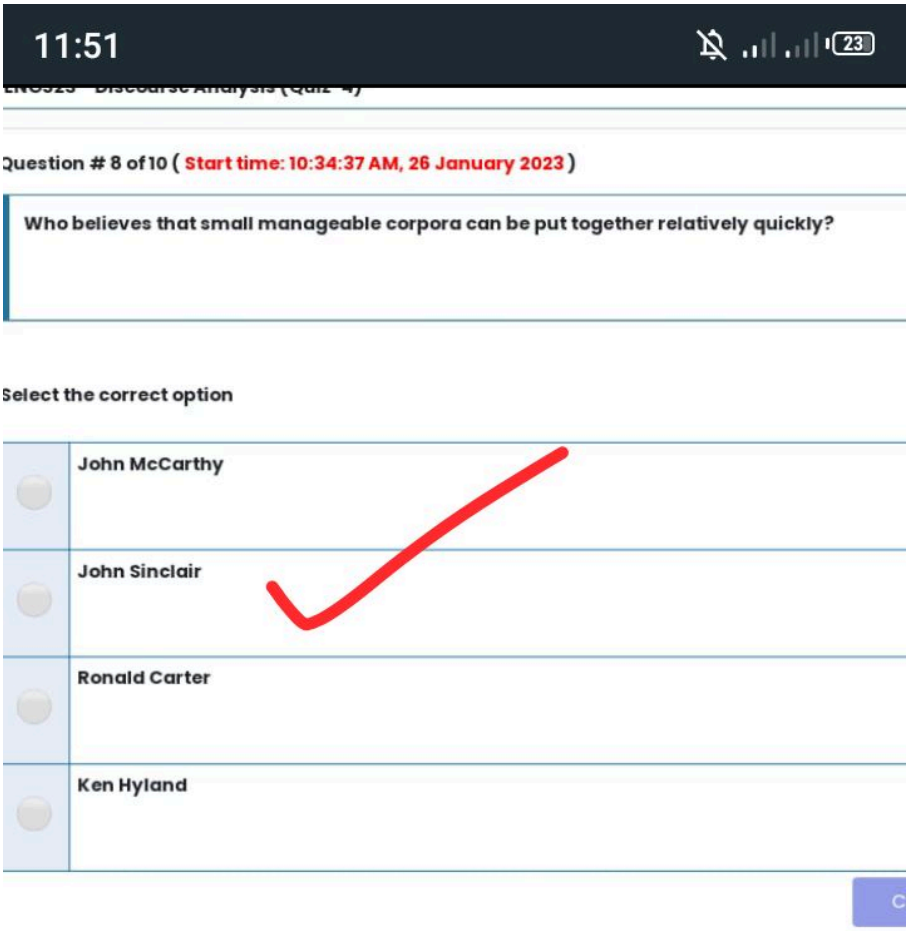


corpus: "Aims to represent language in its broadest sense and to serve as a widely available resource for baseline or comparative studies of general linguistic features." (Reppen and Simpson 2004). A **general corpus**, thus, provides sample data from which we can make generalizations about spoken and written discourse as a whole, and frequencies of occurrence and co-occurrence of particular aspects of language in the discourse. It will not, however, tell us about the language and discourse of particular genres or domain of use (unless the corpus can be broken down into separate genres or areas of use in some way). For this, we need a ***specialized corpus.***

A **specialized corpus,** as Hunston (2002) explains is:
"A corpus of texts of a particular type, such as newspaper editorials, geography textbooks, academic articles in a particular subject, lectures, casual conversations, essays written by students etc. It aims to be representative of a given type of text. It is used to investigate a

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particular type of language." **Specialized corpora** are required when the research question relates to the use of spoken or written discourse in particular kinds of texts or in particular situations. A specialized corpus might be used, for example, to examine the use of hedges in casual conversation or the ways in which people signal a change in topic in an academic presentation. It might look at an aspect of students' academic written discourse and compare this





the case, however, that a custom-made corpus needs to be especially large. It depends on what the purpose of collecting the corpus is. As Sinclair (2001) has argued, small manageable corpora

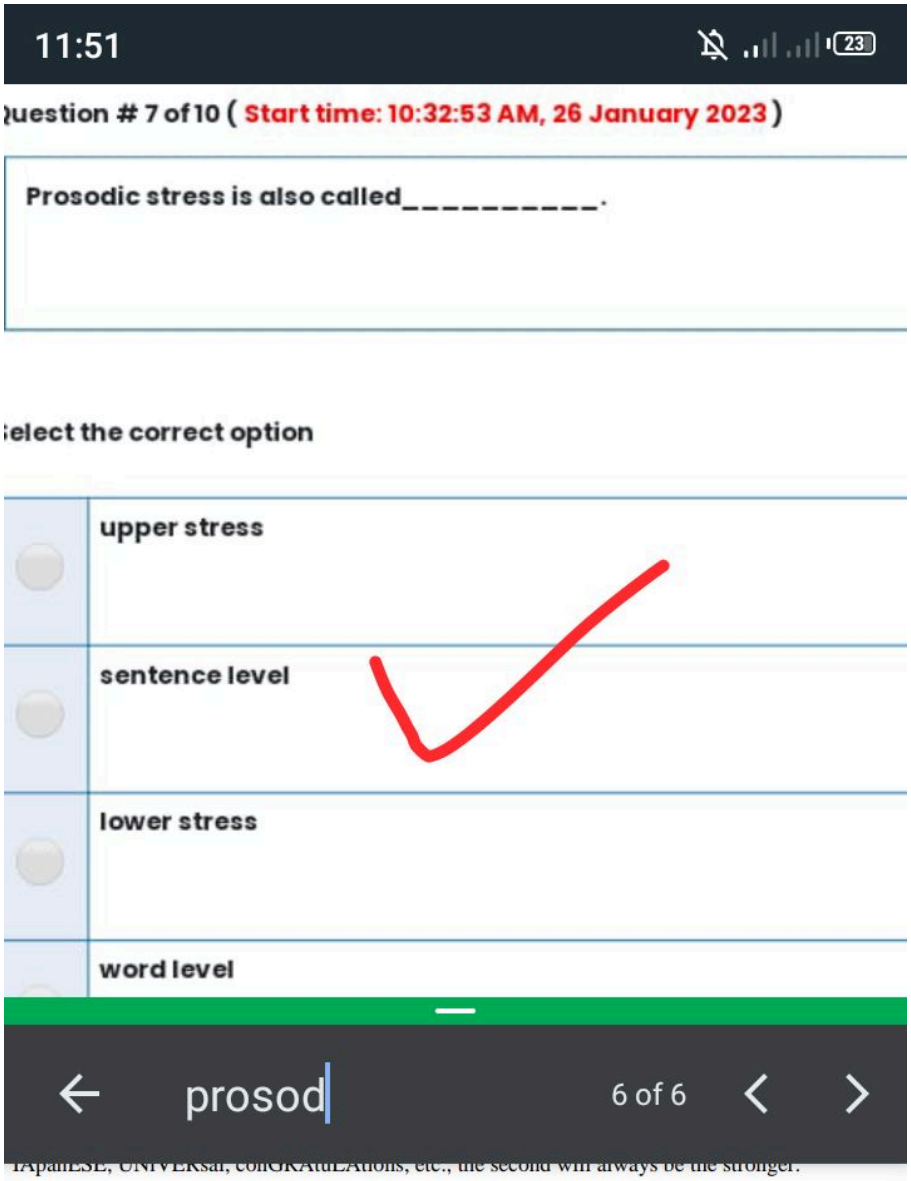
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can be put together relatively quickly and can be honed to very specific genres and very specific areas of discourse use. They can also be extremely useful for the teaching of particular genres and for investigating learner needs.

Issues to Consider in Constructing a Corpus

There are a number of issues that need to be considered when constructing a corpus.

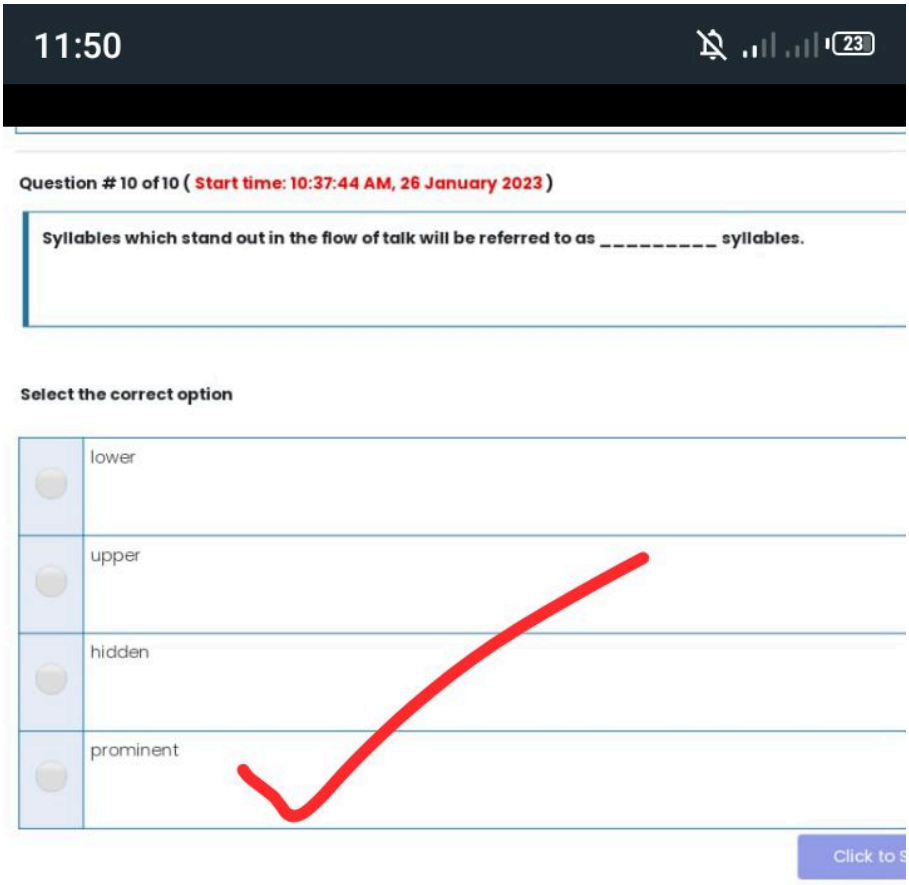
- The first of these is what to include in the corpus; that is, the variety or dialect of the language, the genre(s) to be included, whether the texts should be spoken, written or both and whether the texts should be monologic, dialogic or multi-party.
- The next issue is the size of the corpus and of the individual texts, as well as the number of texts to include in each category. The issue is not, however, just corpus size, but also the way in which the data will be collected and the kinds of questions that will be examined using the data (McCarthy and Carter 2001). Even a small corpus can be useful for investigating certain discourse features.
- The sources and subject matter of the texts may also be an issue that needs to be considered.

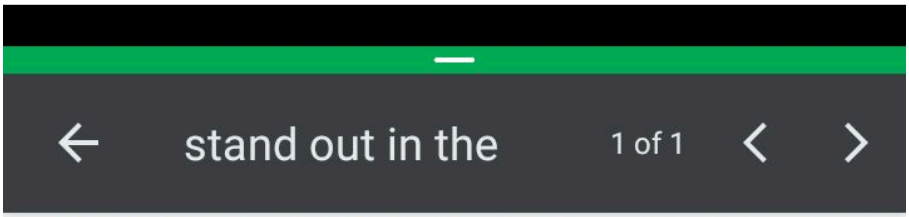


Stress is a large topic and despite the fact that it has been extensively studied for a very long time, there remain many areas of disagreement or lack of understanding. So, it is important to consider what factors make a syllable count as stressed. Stress is basically a prominence of syllable in terms of loudness, length, pitch and quality and all of them work together in order to make a syllable stressed. As discussed above, two types of stress are important. Firstly, stress on a syllable within a word (the lexical stress) which changes the grammatical category of a word (compare **in**sult with in**sult**) and also change meaning among other things. On the other hand, stress on a word or certain words in a phrase or sentence. This type of stress (on word(s) within sentences) is called sentence level or prosodic stress. This is, in fact, a change or modification to word level stress in a sentence which is basically a change of 'beat' on certain words in a sentence. Remember that, we create 'rhythm' in spoken language on the basis of stress.
Analyze the following examples (stressed words are shown in bold):

Mary's *younger* ***brother*** *wanted* ***fifty*** *chocolate* ***peanuts.***
So, what is happening here in this sentence is about the distinguishing degree of emphasis which is used for creating contrast in sentences or lines of verse. The question is: why do we create this

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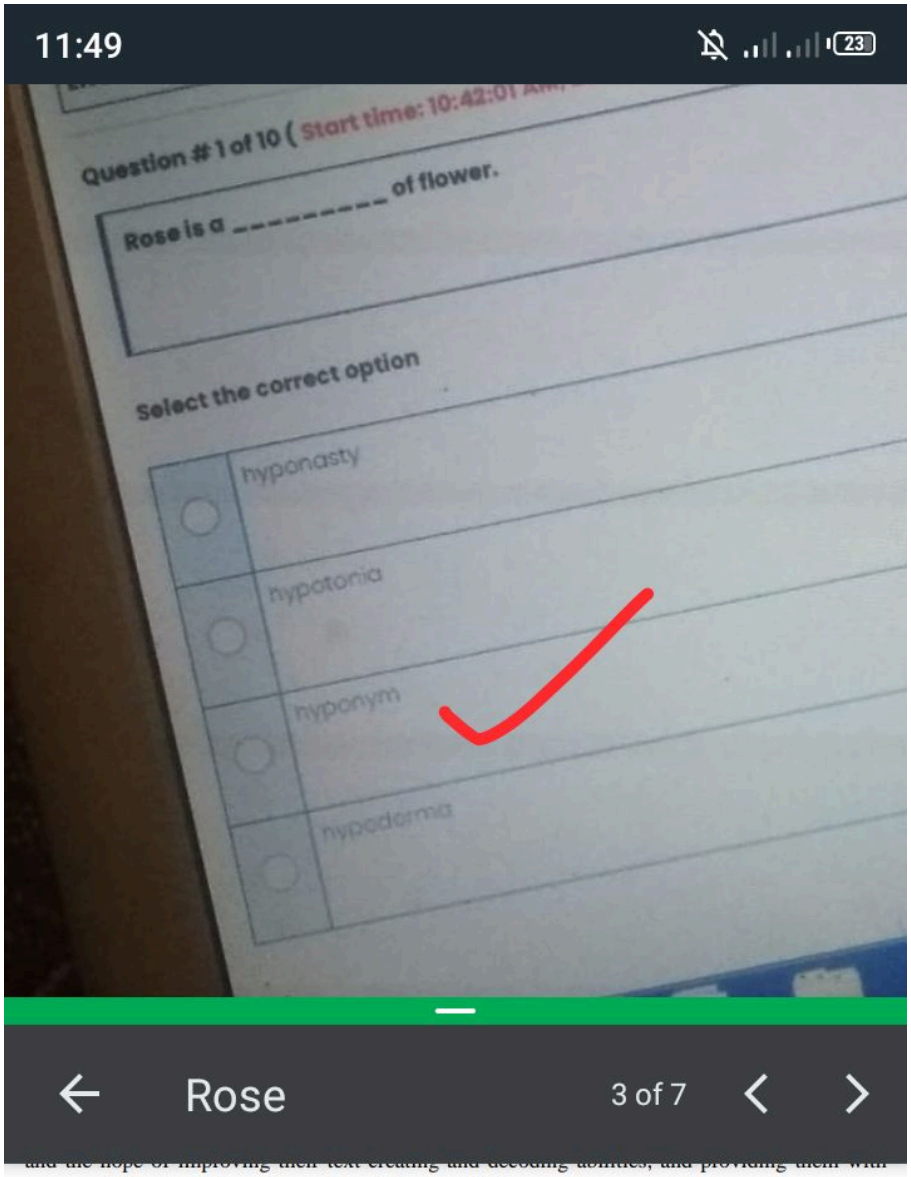
Firstly, there does seem to be rhythmically in varying degrees in long stretches of speech, especially carefully considered deliveries such as broadcast talks, fluent reading aloud, speeches and monologues, as well as some ordinary conversation. Secondly, the concept of English as a stress-timed language, deeply rooted in theoretical and applied linguistics, has dominated approaches to the teaching of rhythm.

Word stress and prominence

At this point, it is useful to change our terminology slightly and introduce the term prominence. Syllables which stand out in the flow of talk will be referred to as prominent syllables. It is because the speaker has uttered them with relatively greater intensity, or duration, or pitch variation compared with surrounding syllables (and our perception of this phenomenon will usually be due to a variety of such features). It is helpful to have this special term, prominence, so as not to confuse word stress, which words bear in their citation forms (sometimes called their isolate pronunciations), with what concerns us most here: the choice of the speaker to make certain words salient by giving prominence to syllables. This is therefore a more precise use of the term prominence than is found in some sources (e.g. Cruttenden 1986).

Word stress, as it is traditionally understood, and **prominence**, as we shall use it here, are two distinct levels. Where they overlap, of course, is in the fact that prominences may not be distributed just anywhere in the word, but may only fall on certain syllables. Where two prominences can occur in the same word, as is often the case with a whole class of words such as IApanESE, UNiVERsal, conGRAtuLAtions, etc., the second will always be the stronger.

Stress is a large topic and despite the fact that it has been extensively studied for a very long time, there remain many areas of disagreement or lack of understanding. So, it is important to consider what factors make a syllable count as stressed. Stress is basically a prominence of



more varied contexts for using and practicing vocabulary.

Reiteration means either restating an item in a later part of the discourse by direct repetition or else reasserting its meaning by exploiting lexical relations. Lexical relations are the stable semantic relationships that exist between words and which are the basis of descriptions given in dictionaries and thesauri: for example, **rose** and flower are related by hyponymy; **rose** is a hyponym of flower.

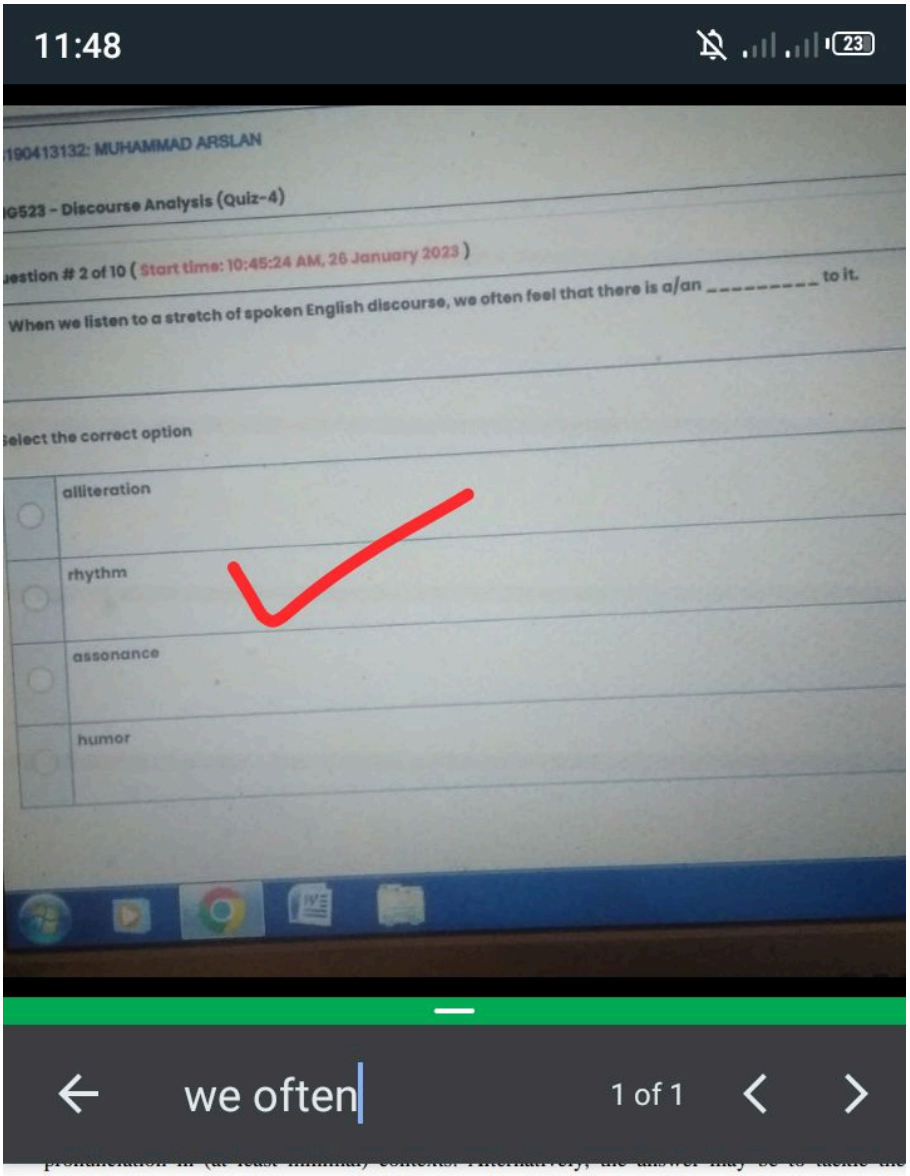
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1) Repetition

The most direct form of lexical cohesion is repetition of a lexical item; e.g., bear in sentence Algy met a bear. The bear was bulgy (Halliday, 1985). Here the second occurrence of bear harks back to the first.

2) Synonym or near – synonym

Synonym is used to mean 'sameness of meaning' (Palmer, 1981). Lexical cohesion results from the choice of a lexical item that is in some sense synonymous with a preceding one; for example, sound with noise

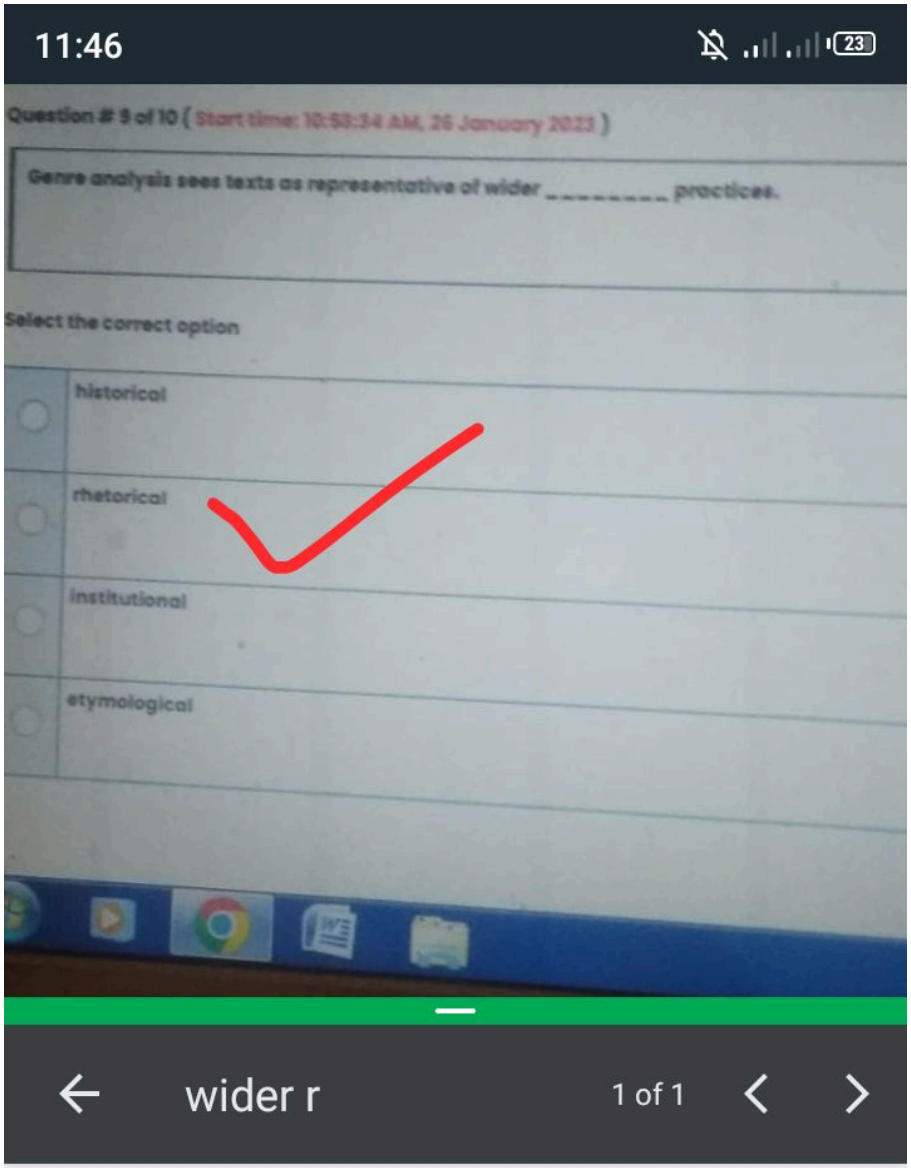


problem simultaneously from a 'top-down' and 'bottom up' approach, on the premise that articulation, rhythmically (see below) and intonation are inextricably linked, and that good intonation will have a wash-back effect on articulation in terms of reduced and altered articulations of individual phonemes, alongside the specific teaching of phonemes and the most common altered and reduced forms.

When we listen to a stretch of spoken English discourse, we often feel that there is a **rhythm** or regularity to it, which gives it a characteristic sound, different from other languages and not always well-imitated by foreign learners. The impression of rhythm may arise out of a feeling of alternation between strong and weak 'beats'. **Traditionally, rhythm** has been considered an important element in the teaching of spoken English. This is probably due to two main factors.

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Firstly, there does seem to be rhythmically in varying degrees in long stretches of speech, especially carefully considered deliveries such as broadcast talks, fluent reading aloud, speeches and monologues, as well as some ordinary conversation. Secondly, the concept of English as a



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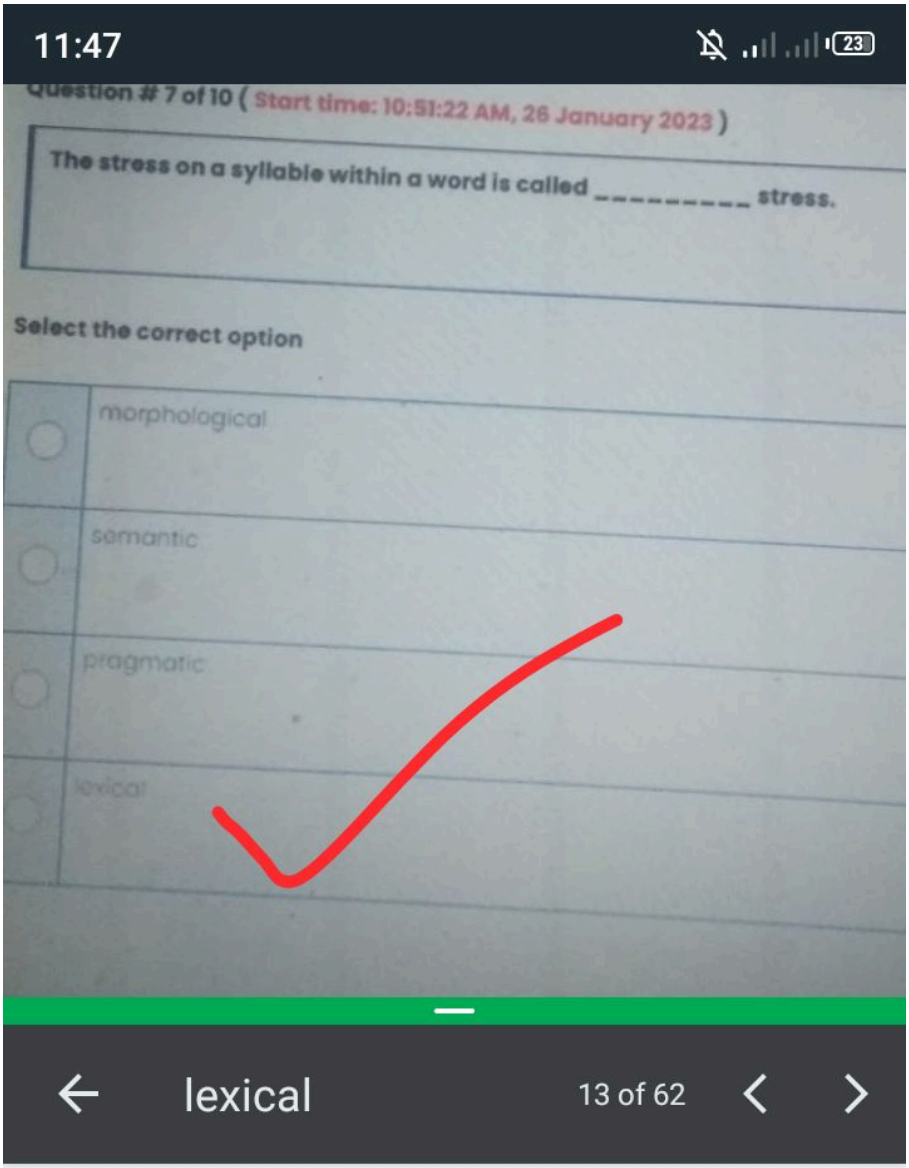
Discourse analysis is a collection of methods for studying language in action, looking at texts in relation to the social contexts in which they are used. Because language is an irreducible part of social life, connected to almost everything we do, this broad definition has been interpreted in various ways across the social sciences. In **EAP** it has tended to be a methodology which gives greater emphasis to actual texts than to institutional social practices, and has largely taken the form of focusing on particular academic genres such as the research article, the conference presentation, and the student essay.

Genre analysis can be seen as a more specific form of discourse analysis, which focuses on any element of recurrent language use, including grammar and lexis that is relevant to the analyst's interests. As a result, genre analysis sees texts as representative of wider rhetorical practices and so has the potential to offer descriptions and explanations both of texts and of the communities that use them. Genres are the recurrent uses of more or less conventionalized forms throu' which individuals develop relationships, establish communities ar' 'one ' language.

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Genres can therefore be seen as a kind of tacit contract between writers and readers, w. influence the behavior of text producers and the expectations of receivers. By focusing on mapping typicality, genre analysis thus seeks to show what is usual in collections of texts, and so it helps to reveal underlying discourses and the preferences of disciplinary communities. These approaches are influenced by Halliday's (1994) view of language as a system of choices that link texts to particular contexts through patterns of lexico-grammatical and rhetorical features (Christie and Martin, 1997) and by Swales' (1990) observation that these recurrent choices are closely related to the work of particular discourse communities, whose members share broad social purposes.

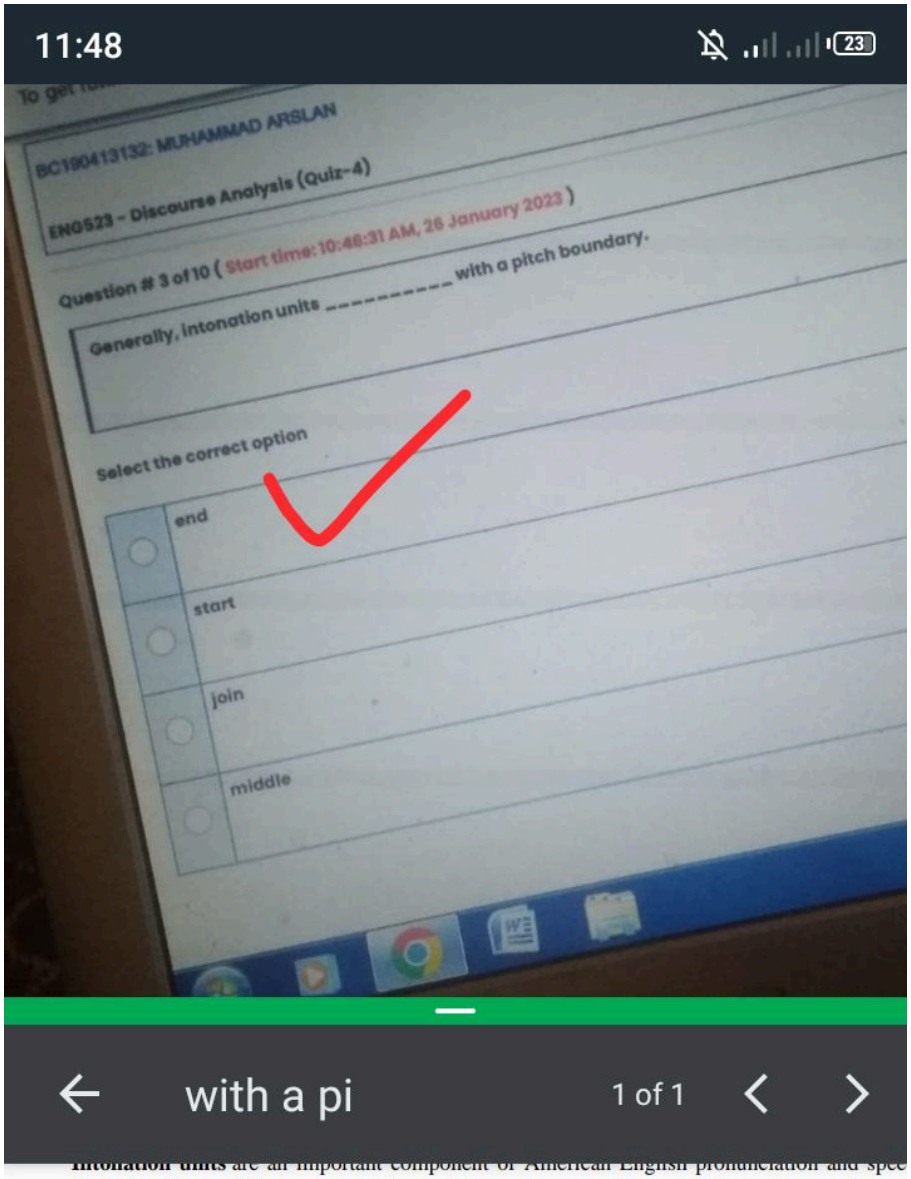
Perhaps the most **productive application of discourse analysis in EAP** has been to explore the lexico-grammatical and discursive patterns of particular genres in order to identify their recognizable structural identity. Analyzing this kind of patterning has yielded useful information about the ways in which texts are constructed and the rhetorical contexts in which such patterns



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Intonation units are an important component of American English pronunciation and spee

An **intonation unit** is a segment of speech. It can be as small as a single word, or as long a sentence. Two sentences with identical grammatical structure may be comprised of differ numbers of intonation units when spoken, based on the intent or emotional state of the speak It's important to learn to distinguish these units because they give subtle meanings and h organize a conversation. There is no single determiner as to where intonation units begin and e or how many a single sentence contains, but there are clues. Generally, intonation units:

- begin with faster speech, and end with slower speech
- include a single pitch word
- end with a pitch boundary

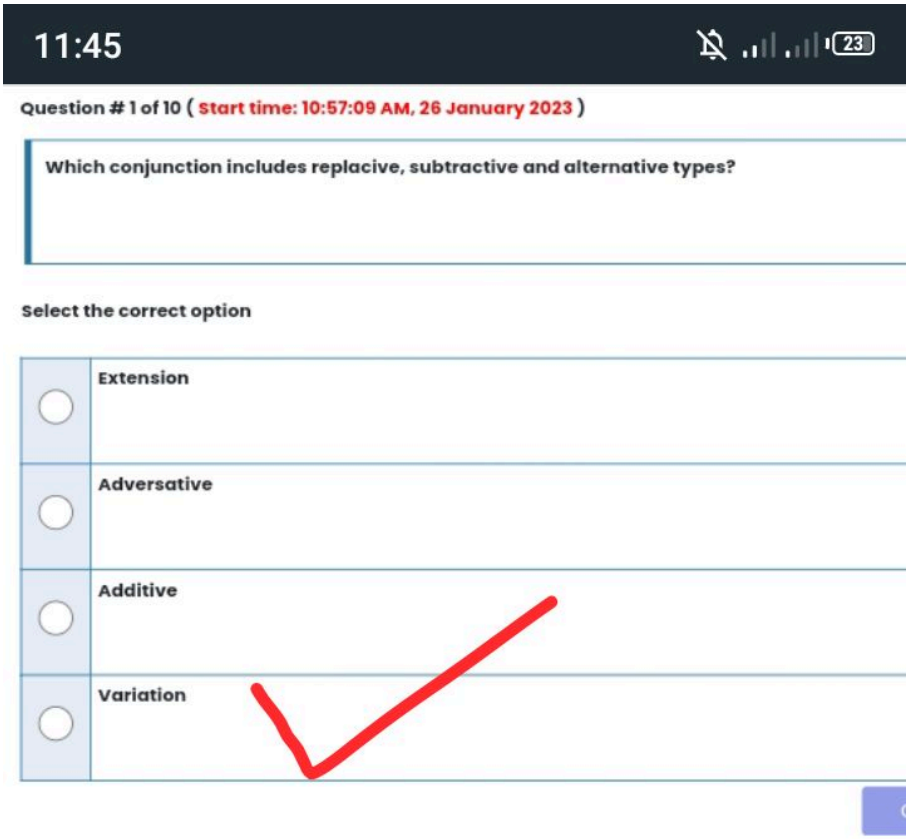
Intonation units and emotion

Individual speakers alter the number of intonation units they use. Some of this is based individual patterns and habits, but speakers also alter intonation units based on emotion. A fas speaker will generally use fewer intonation units and may be seen as being more urgent, fran excited, and anxious. A slower speaker may have more intonation units and may be perceived being more emphatic, determined, and insistent. Of course, these are the extremes, and m people normally speak somewhere in the middle range.

Elements of intonation units

Sentences can often be broken up into multiple intonation units. Each intonation unit usually l a single pitch word and ends in a pitch boundary. Each pitch word conveys information to listener, and each pitch boundary helps organize how speakers take turns speaking.

Similar sentences can have a different number of intonation units. The end of each intonati unit is marked with a hash (/) and the pitch words are bolded. Notice that the speaker with fe





- **Particularizing**: *in particular, more especially*
- **Resumptive**: *as I was saying, to resume, to get back to the pint*
- **Summative**: *in short, to sum up, in conclusion, briefly*
- **Verifactive:** *actually, as a matter of fact, in fact*

) **Extension**

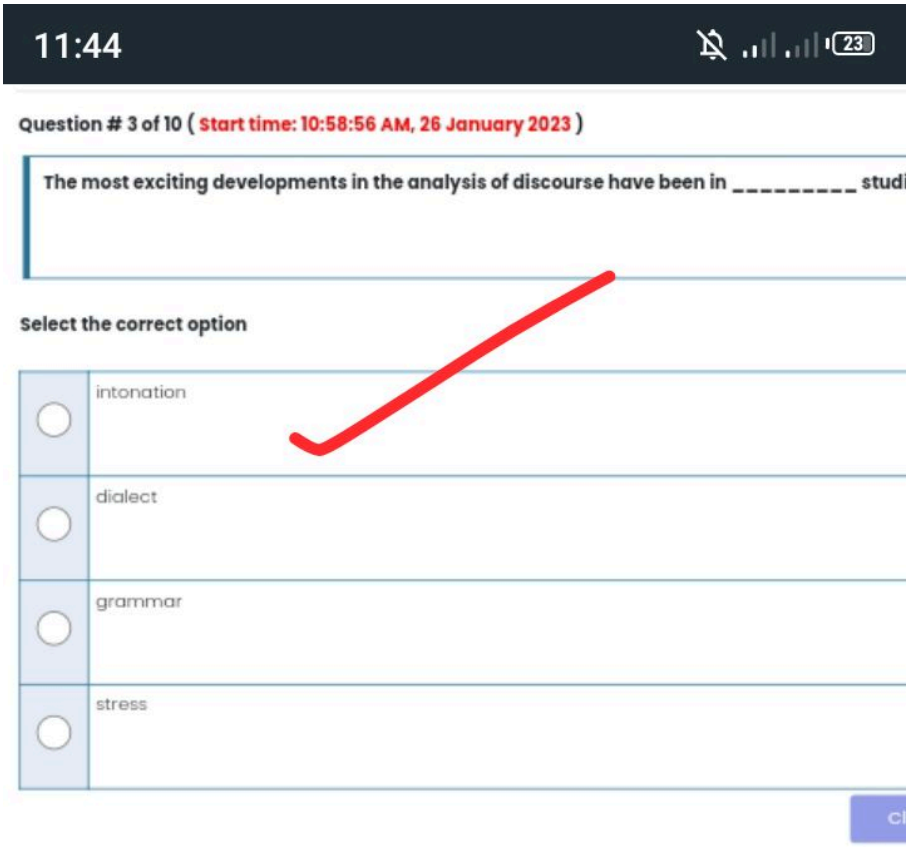
Extension means one clause expands another by extending beyond it by adding some new element, giving an exception to it, or offering an alternative (Halliday, 1985). Extension involves either addition, adversative, or variation. **Additive** conjunction acts to structurally coordinate or link by adding to the presupposed item divided into positive (*and, also, moreover, in addition*) and negative (*nor*). **Adversative**t is conjunction which relates two clauses that state contras each other (Kridalaksana, 1993). It acts also to indicate contrary to expectation and signaled by *but, yet, on the other hand, however.* **Variation** includes replacive 'instead', subtractive 'except' and alternative 'or' types.

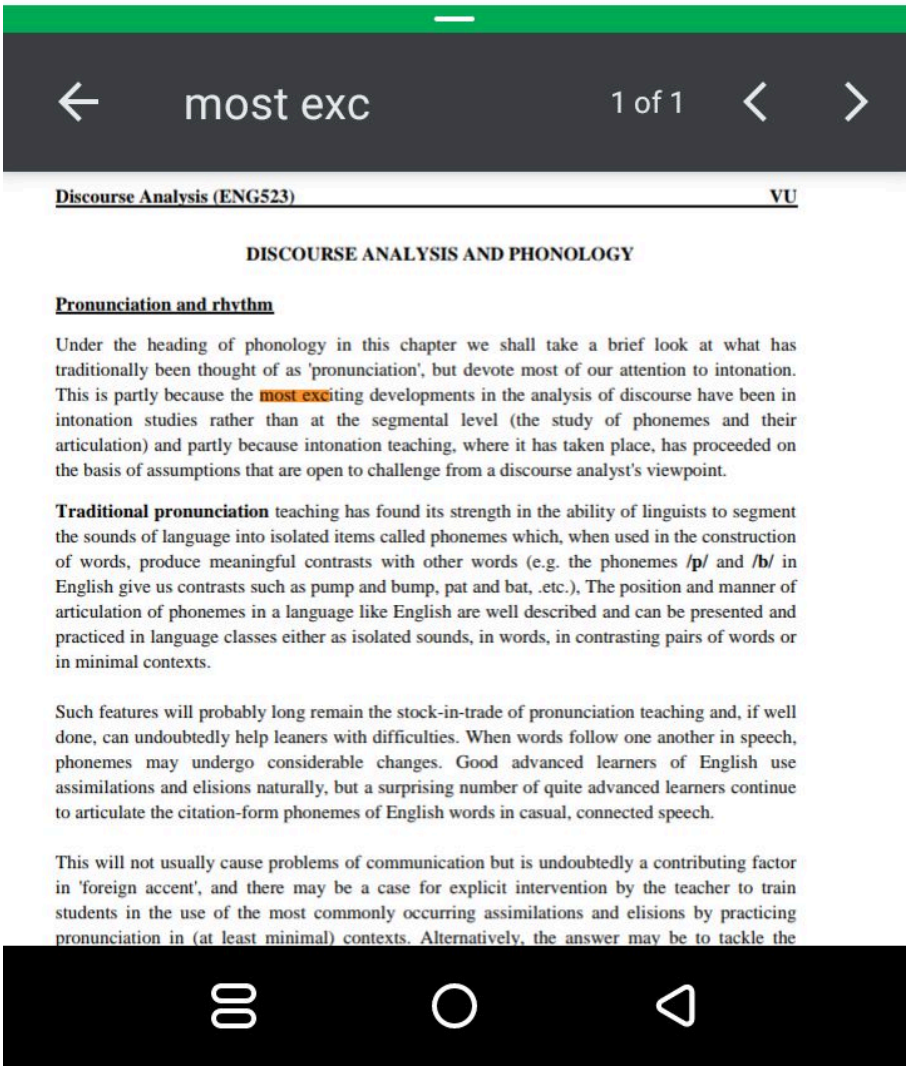
- **Replacive:** *on contrary, instead*
- **Subtractive:** *apart from that, except*
- **Alternative:** *alternatively*

3) Enhancement

Enhancement means one clause expands another by embellishing around it by qualifying it with some circumstantial feature of time, place, cause or condition (Halliday, 1985).

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DISCOURSE ANALYSIS AND PHONOLOGY

Pronunciation and rhythm

Under the heading of phonology in this chapter we shall take a brief look at what has traditionally been thought of as 'pronunciation', but devote most of our attention to intonation. This is partly because the most exciting developments in the analysis of discourse have been in intonation studies rather than at the segmental level (the study of phonemes and their articulation) and partly because intonation teaching, where it has taken place, has proceeded on the basis of assumptions that are open to challenge from a discourse analyst's viewpoint.

Traditional pronunciation teaching has found its strength in the ability of linguists to segment the sounds of language into isolated items called phonemes which, when used in the construction of words, produce meaningful contrasts with other words (e.g. the phonemes **/p/** and **/b/** in English give us contrasts such as pump and bump, pat and bat, .etc.), The position and manner of articulation of phonemes in a language like English are well described and can be presented and practiced in language classes either as isolated sounds, in words, in contrasting pairs of words or in minimal contexts.

Such features will probably long remain the stock-in-trade of pronunciation teaching and, if well done, can undoubtedly help leaners with difficulties. When words follow one another in speech, phonemes may undergo considerable changes. Good advanced learners of English use assimilations and elisions naturally, but a surprising number of quite advanced learners continue to articulate the citation-form phonemes of English words in casual, connected speech.

This will not usually cause problems of communication but is undoubtedly a contributing factor in 'foreign accent', and there may be a case for explicit intervention by the teacher to train students in the use of the most commonly occurring assimilations and elisions by practicing pronunciation in (at least minimal) contexts. Alternatively, the answer may be to tackle the

11:43

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ENG523 - Discourse Analysis (Quiz-4) Quiz Start Time:

Question # 5 of 10 (Start time: 11:00:01 AM, 26 January 2023)

Systematic qualitative analysis in the Discourse Historical Approach (DHA) takes _____ layers of context.

Select the correct option

- seven
- two
- six
- four



Click to Save Answer &

layers 2 of 2

Maier 2009).

The discourse-historical approach

DHA provides a vehicle for looking at latent power dynamics and the range of potential in agents, because it integrates and triangulates knowledge about historical, inter-textual sources and the background of the social and political fields within which discursive events are embedded. Moreover, the DHA distinguishes between three dimensions that constitute textual meanings and structures: the topics that are spoken/ written about; the discursive strategies employed; and the linguistic means that are drawn upon to realize both topics and strategies (e.g. argumentative strategies, topoi, presuppositions – see below for an extensive discussion).

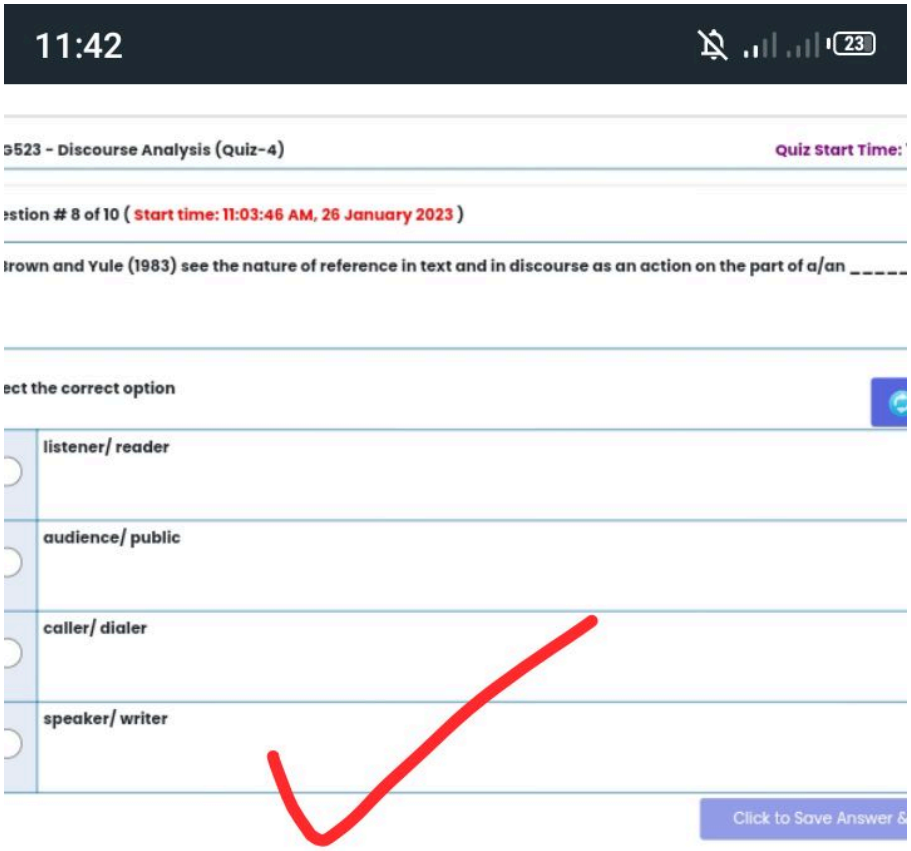
Systematic qualitative analysis in the DHA takes four layers of context into account: the inter-textual and inter-discursive relationships between utterances, texts, genres and discourses; the extra-linguistic social/sociological variables; the history and archaeology of texts and organizations; and institutional frames of the specific context of a situation (the specific episodes under investigation). In this way we are able to explore how discourses, genres and texts change due to socio-political contexts, and with what effects (see Wodak, 2001).

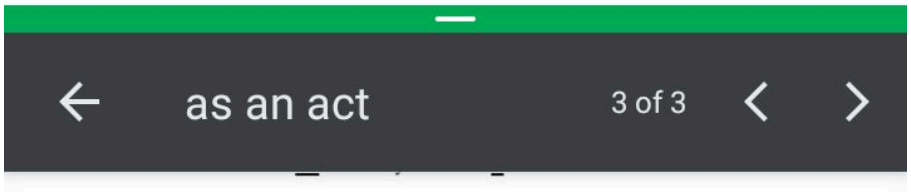
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Furthermore, two concepts are salient for analyzing the backstage of [illegible]y refers to the linkage of all texts to other texts, both in the past and in the [illegible] can be established in different ways: through continued reference to a topic or to its main actors; through reference to the same events as the other texts; or through the reappearance of a text's main arguments in another text. The second important process is labeled contextualization. By taking an argument, a topic, a genre or a discursive practice out of context and restating/realizing it in a new context, we first observe the process of de-contextualization, and then, when the respective element is implemented in a new context, of contextualization. The element then acquires a new meaning, because, as Wittgenstein (1967) demonstrated, meanings are formed in use.

Politics as usual: perspectives and limitations

Common sense supposes that politicians are very well organized, in spite of the many urgent and important events they must deal with, which have an impact on all our lives. We all have





In this sentence, he refers to Michael which will be treated as a anaphoric reference, and **it** refers to the bank which will also be treated as an anaphoric reference. In the above given examples, **Michael** and **bank will be treated as cataphoric reference.** Hence, an anaphoric reference occurs when a word or phrase refers to something mentioned **earlier** in the discourse, whereas a cataphoric reference occurs when a word or phrase refers to something mentioned **later** in the discourse.

Brown and Yule (1983) see the nature of reference in text and in discourse as an action on the part of a speaker/writer. It describes what they are doing "not the relationship which exists between one sentence or proposition and another." McCarthy (1991) states that we must consider the notion of discourse segments as "functional units, rather than concentrating on sentence and to see the writer/speaker as faced with a number of strategic choices as to how to relate segments to one another and how to present them to the receiver." He adds that reference items can refer to Segments of discourse or situations as a whole rather than to any one specified entity in that situation. Fox (1987) claims that reference can be successfully made (for instance, through the use of pronouns) if the referent is "in focus, in consciousness, textually evoked or high in topicality" and where it "can be operationally defined in terms of the discourse structure."

To this end, referents are often realized through anaphoric (word or phrase referring backwards in a text), cataphoric (word or phrase referring forwards in a text), and exophoric (reference to assumed shared worlds outside the text) devices and can appear as functional units in discourse segmentation.

This implies the use of language to point to something. Reference therefore has the ability to point to something within or outside a text.

Halliday and Hassan (1976) states that co-referential forms are forms which instead of being interpreted semantically in their own right, make reference to something else for their interpretation. When the interpretation is within the text, this is an „endophoric" relation but in a situation where the interpretation of the text lies outside the text, in the context of situation, the relationship is „exophoric". However, exophoric relations play no part in textual cohesion.

11:43

ENG523 - Discourse Analysis (Quiz-4)

Question # 6 of 10 (Start time: 11:00:36 AM, 26 January 2023)

Who introduced the concept of discourse-organizing words?

Select the correct option

- McCarthy and Carter
- Carter and Chomsky
- McCarthy and Chomsky
- Chomsky and Hymes

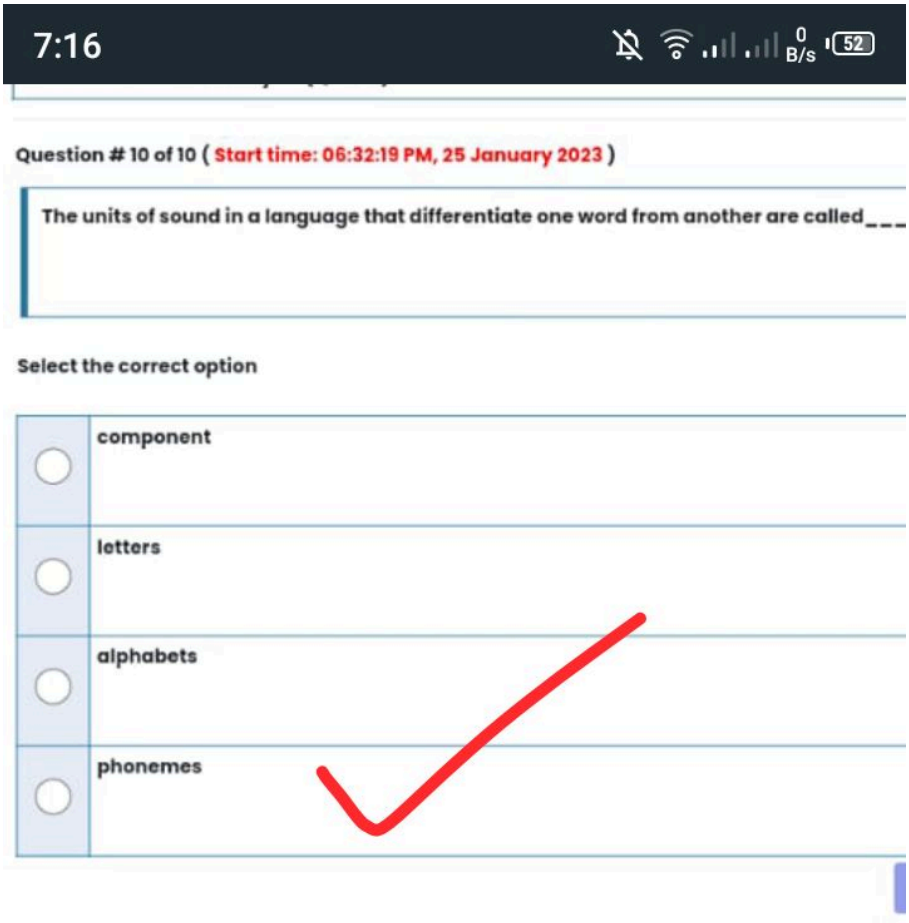
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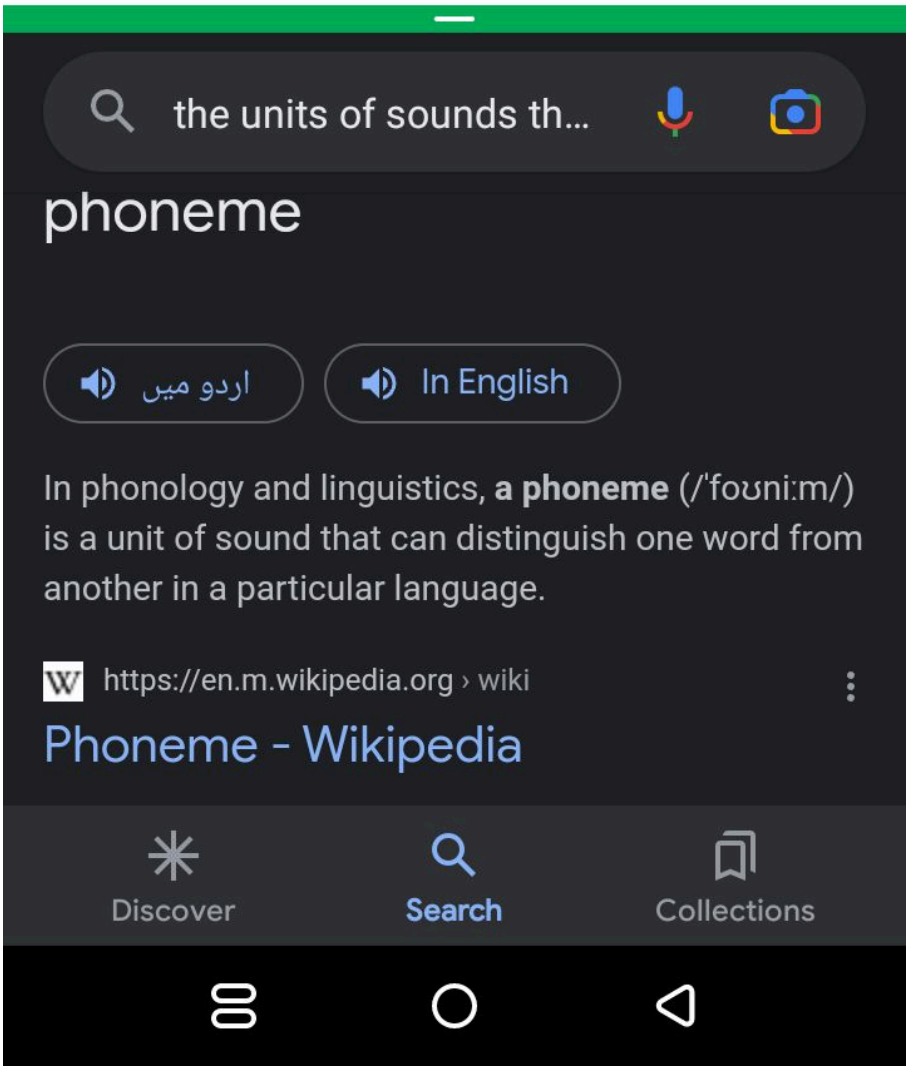
A distinction is often made between grammar words and lexical words in language. This distinction also appears sometimes as **function words** versus **content words**, or **empty words** versus **full words**. The distinction is a useful one: it enables us to separate off those words which belong to closed systems in the language and which carry grammatical meaning, from those that belong to open systems and which belong to the major word classes of noun, verb, adjective and adverb. This, that, these and those in English belong to a closed system (as do the pronouns and prepositions) and carry the grammatical meaning of 'demonstratives'. Monkey, sculpture, noise and toenail belong to open-ended sets, which are often thought of as the 'creative' end of language. In between these two extremes is another type of vocabulary that has recently been studied by discourse analysts, a type that seems to share qualities of both the open and the closed-set words.

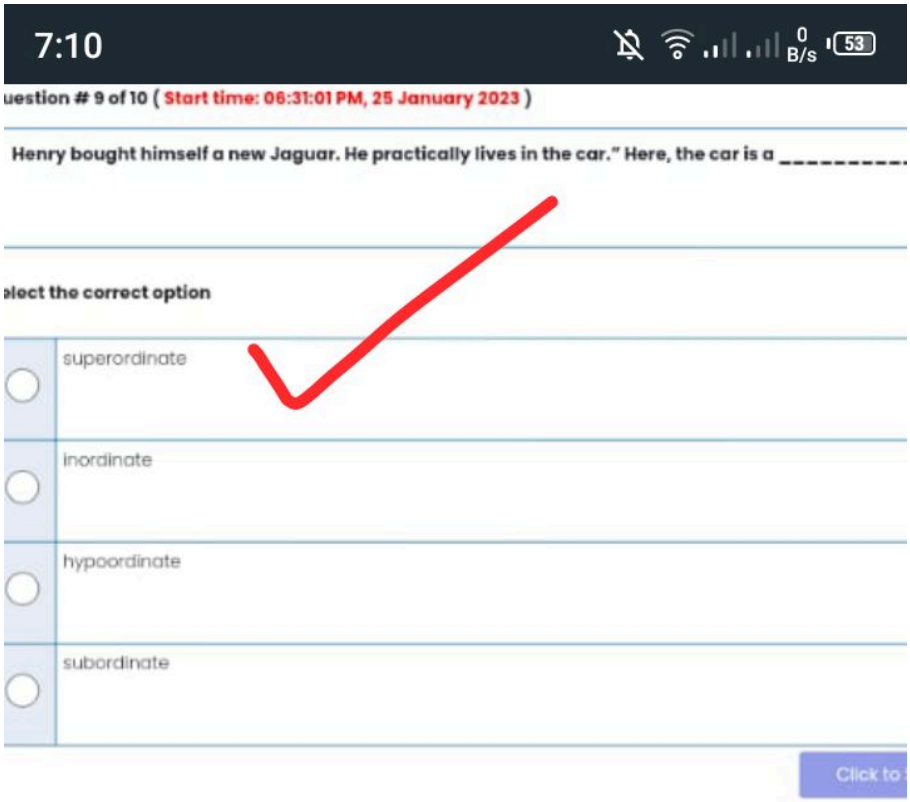
McCarthy and McCarthy and Carter introduce the concept of discourse-organizing words whose job in the text is to organize and structure the arguments, rather than answer for its content or field. Some of this discourse-organizing vocabulary consists of words that act as pronouns in the way that they refer in the text to some other part of the text. They include such words, as issue, problem, assessment, question, position, case, situation, etc.

Psychological correlate of a natural language is the notion of communicative competence as introduced by Hymes (1972). He explicitly states that communicative competence comprises "not only the ability to understand and interpret linguistic expressions, but also the ability to use these expressions in appropriate and effective ways according to the conventions of verbal interaction prevailing in a linguistic community". It seems natural to suppose that lexical competence, which could accordingly be defined as the ability to use words in appropriate and effective ways in verbal interaction, is part of communicative competence as defined above.

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7:16
Question # 10 of 10 (Start time: 06:32:19 PM, 25 January 2023)
The units of sound in a language that differentiate one word from another are called___
Select the correct option
component
letters
alphabets
phonemes


the units of sounds th...
phoneme
اردو میں
In English
In phonology and linguistics, a phoneme (/ˈfoʊniːm/) is a unit of sound that can distinguish one word from another in a particular language.
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back to the first.

2) Synonym or near – synonym

Synonym is used to mean 'sameness of meaning' (Palmer, 1981). Lexical cohesion results fro the choice of a lexical item that is in some sense synonymous with a preceding one; for examp sound with noise.

3) Superordinate

Superordinate is term for words that refer to the upper class itself (Palmer, 1981). In contra term for words that refer to the lower class itself is hyponym. **For example:** Henry's boug himself a new Jaguar. He practically lives in the car (Halliday and Hasan, 1976)

Here, car refers back to Jaguar; and the car is a superordinate of Jaguar.

4) General Word

The general words, which correspond to major classes of lexical items, are very commonly us with cohesive force. They are on the borderline between lexical items and substitutes. Not general words are used cohesively; in fact, only the nouns are when it has the same referent whatever it is presupposing, and when it is accompanied by a reference item (Halliday a Hasan, 1976: 280-1). **For example:** There's a boy climbing the old elm. That old thing isn't ve safe (Halliday and Hasan, 1976: 280). Here, the reiteration takes the form of a general wo thing.

Textual aspects of lexical competence

Prior to undertaking the concept of lexical competence, it is worth defining what competence and how it has been viewed so far. The term competence has generated substantial controversy the field of general and applied linguistics (Chomsky, 1965; Hymes, 1972). The former regard it as a pure grammatical competence, that is, "the speaker hearer's knowledge of his languag and the latter observed that this competence was more related to communication: a normal chi acquires knowledge of sentences not only as grammatical, but also as appropriate. He or s

7:09

Question # 8 of 10 (Start time: 06:30:01 PM, 25 January 2023)

Ethnomethodology is technically rooted in _____.

Select the correct option

- terminology
- etymology
- sociology
- psychology

rooted 1 of 2...

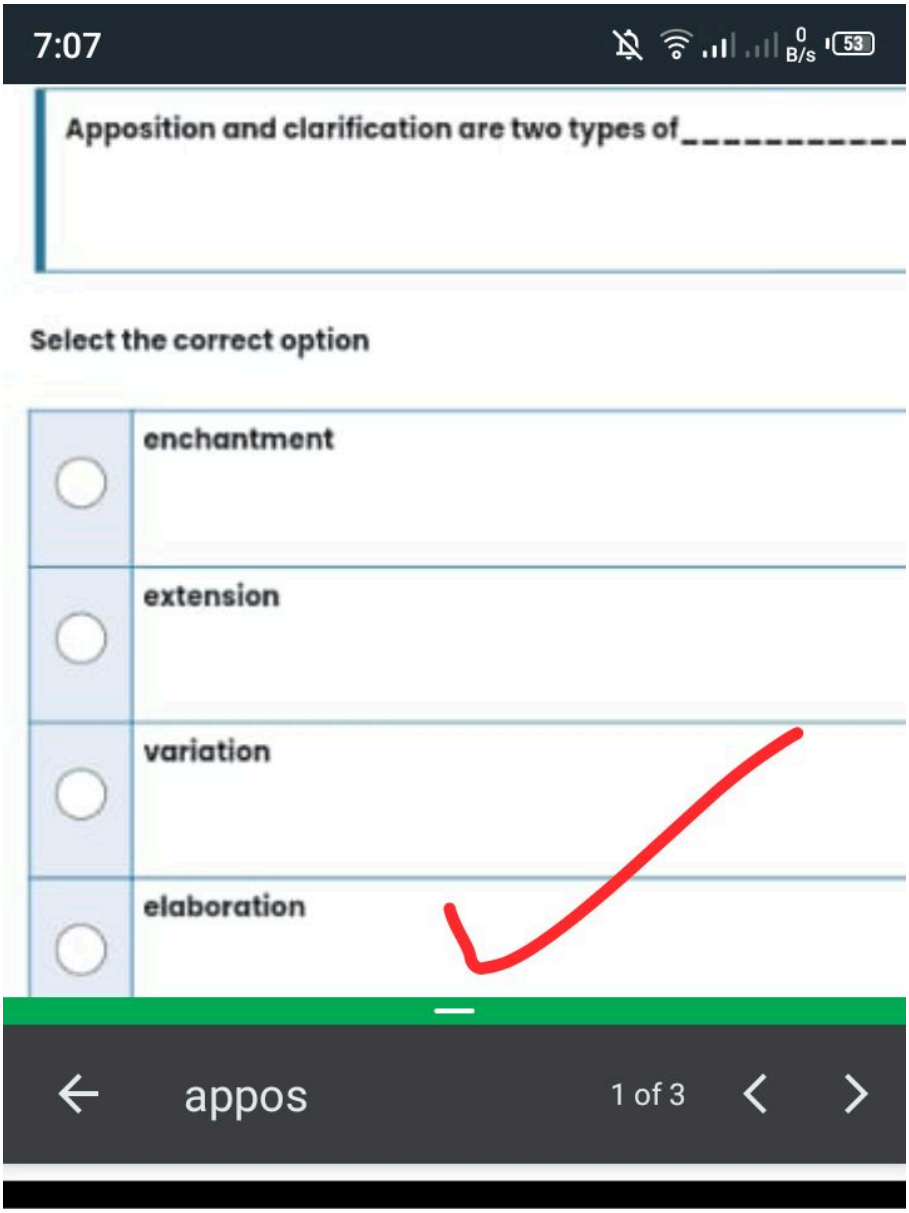
example) does not suffice to understand and explain the complexity of 'politics. This is why th organizational contexts (structures, rules, regulations, and constraints) have to be accounted fo in detail.

Issues of power, hegemony and ideology have been reconceived as central to social an linguistic practices in all organizations, since all organizational forms can be translated int language and communication and because, as Deetz (1982: 135) concluded, talk and writin 'connect each perception to a larger orientation and system of meaning'. The distinction betwee structure and agency is useful, since it moves us away from a preoccupation with individua motivations and behaviors to the discursive practices through which organizational activity i performed in ritualized in ever new ways. Four prominent linguistic–discursive approaches hav proven particularly influential in organizational research to date: ethno-methodology conversation analysis (CA); sociolinguistic analysis; and (critical) discourse analysis (CDA).

Ethnomethodology, whilst technically rooted in sociology, emphasizes the conditions that hav to be satisfied for certain actions to be perceived as signifying a recognized sanction (Garfinke et al., 1981). Conversation analysis (CA) identifies the very d em' taking strategies that are critical to performance and membe 7; Heritage, 1992) and deals with relatively short stretches of in rev representative of, the organizations' interactional principles. Sociolinguistic analysis has in the tradition of correlating sociological parameters (e.g., age, class and gender) with variation in organizational discourse (Bernstein, 1987). Interactional sociolinguistics has its origins i symbolic interactionism (Goffman, 1959) and is further developed in the broad domain o discourse studies, and responds to the criticism that the first approach underplays the effect o context on organizational discourse.

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Studies in this domain are not only labor-intensive due to the required ethnography, but they ar usually organized as case studies that are not easy to generalize from. Nevertheless Holzscheiter's investigation into decision-making procedures about legal requirements of chil protection on the UN level allows important insight into the debates of NGOs and their impac on government officials (2005). Duranti's participant observation of a US senator's electio campaign trail raised awareness about the many discursive practices and persuasive device required to keep on track such a huge campaign and related persons (2006). Decision makin



categories, namely additive, adversative, causal, and temporal. According to Halliday (1985), conjunction is classified into ***elaboration, extention, and enchancement.***

1) Elaboration

Elaboration means one clause that expands another by elaborating on it (or some portion of it) by restating in other words, specifying in greater detail, commenting, or exemplifying (Halliday, 1985). There are two categories of elaborative relation, namely apposition and clarification.

- **Apposition**

According to Kridalaksana (1993) apposition is a word or phrase which explains other preceding phrase or clause. In this type of elaboration some element is re-presented, or restated, either by exposition or example. Look at the example below:

Expository: in other word, that is (to stay), I mean (to say), to put it another way.
Exemplifying: for example, for instance, thus, to illustrate.

- **Clarification**

Here, the elaborated element is not simply restated but reinstated, summarized, made more precise or in some other way clarified for the purposes of discourse:

- **Corrective**: *or, rather, at least, to be more precise*
- **Distractive**: *by the way, incidentally*
- **Dismissive**: *in any case, anyway, leaving that a side*
- **Particularizing**: *in particular, more especially*
- **Resumptive**: *as I was saying, to resume, to get back to the pint*
- **Summative**: *in short, to sum up, in conclusion, briefly*
- **Verifactive:** *actually, as a matter of fact, in fact*

7:07

Question # 6 of 10 (Start time: 06:28:18 PM, 25 January 2023)

A general corpus is also called _____.

Select the correct option

- essential corpus
- reference corpus
- critical corpus
- selective corpus

a general co 1 of 2

"Corpus studies draw on collections of texts that are usually stored and analyzed electronically. They look at the occurrence and re-occurrence of particular linguistic features to see how and where they occur in the discourse. They may look at words that typically occur together (collocations) or they may look at the frequency of particular items. Corpus studies may look at language use in general, or they may look at the use of a particular linguistic feature in a particular domain, such as spoken academic discourse, or use of the item in a particular genre, such as university tutorial discussions."

Corpora may be general or they may be specialized. A general corpus, also known as a reference corpus: "Aims to represent language in its broadest sense and to serve as a widely available resource for baseline or comparative studies of general linguistic features." (Reppen and Simpson 2004). **A general corpus**, thus, provides sample data from which we can make generalizations about spoken and written discourse as a whole, and frequency of occurrence and co-occurrence of particular aspects of language in the discourse. It will however, tell about the language and discourse of particular genres or domain of use (unless the corpus can be broken down into separate genres or areas of use in some way). For this, we need a ***specialized corpus.***

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A **specialized corpus,** as Hunston (2002) explains is:
"A corpus of texts of a particular type, such as newspaper editorials, geography textbooks, academic articles in a particular subject, lectures, casual conversations, essays written by students etc. It aims to be representative of a given type of text. It is used to investigate a

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7:08

BC200404627: AFIFA SANAM

ENG523 - Discourse Analysis (Quiz-4)

Question # 7 of 10 (Start time: 06:29:13 PM, 25 January 2023)

In the past, the main vehicles of academic communication were _____.

Select the correct option

- recorded audios
- written texts
- recorded videos
- photographs

of academic 3 of 7

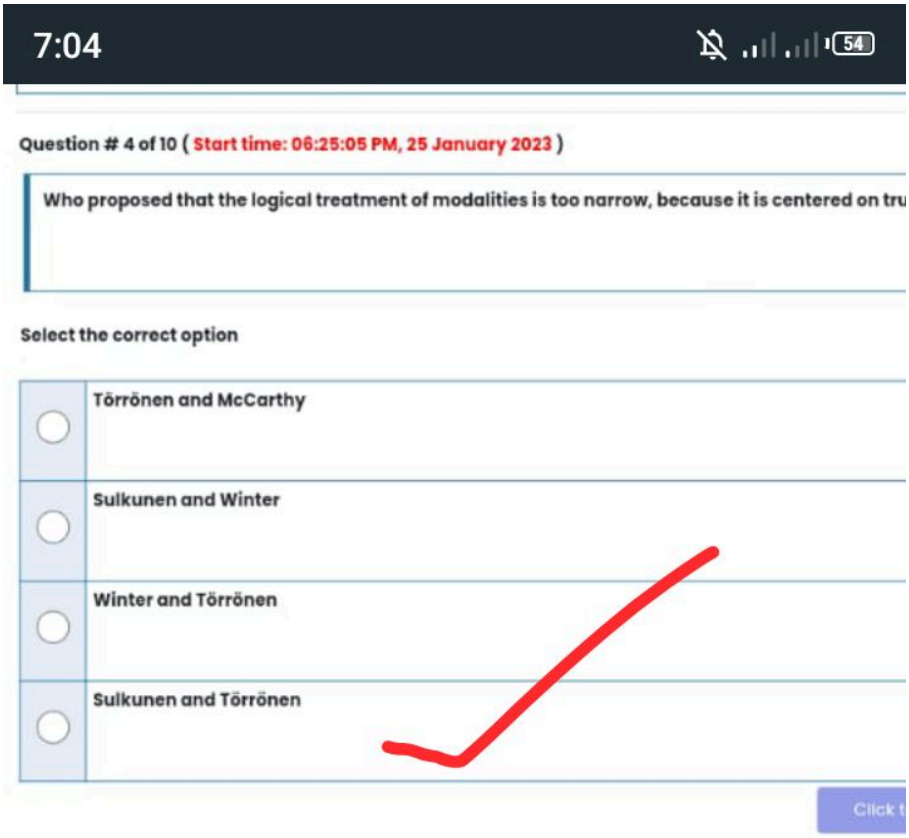
paying international students to compensate for cuts in government support, has resulted in a more culturally, socially and linguistically diverse student population than ever before. **In addition**, students now take a broader and more heterogeneous mix of academic subjects. In addition to traditional single-subject or joint-honors degrees, we now find complex modular degrees and emergent 'practice-based' courses such as nursing, management and social work. These new course configurations are more discoursally challenging for students who have to move between genres, departments and disciplines. Further, while in the past the main vehicles of academic communication were written texts, now a broad range of modalities and presentational forms confront and challenge students' communicative competence.

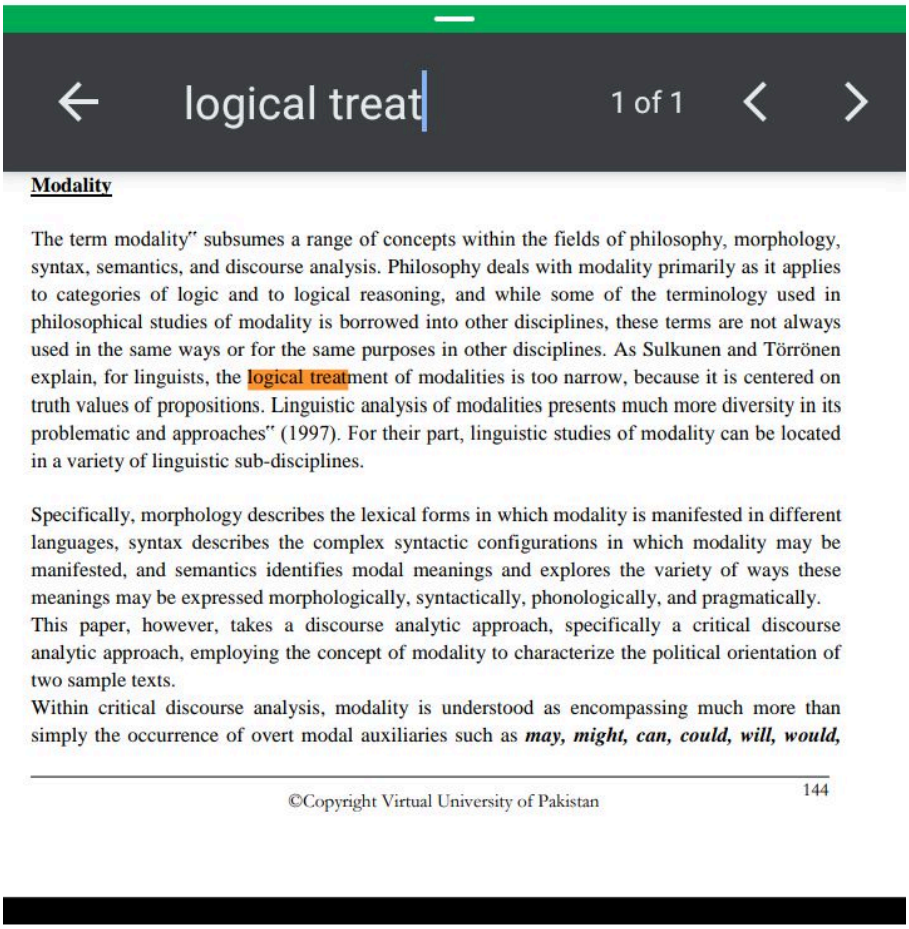
As a result, EAP has assumed greater prominence and importance in the academy, forcing it to evolve and to ask new questions. Instead of focusing on why learners have difficulties in accessing academic discourses, EAP now addresses the influence of culture and the demands of multiple literacies on students' academic experiences. These questions, moreover, accompany new challenges, which Centre on the increased concern with the English language skills of no native English-speaking academics. The ability to deliver workshops ipat meetings, to make presentations at international conferences and, ct publish research in English are all demanded as part of such lecturers den. This group's needs are now beginning to be noticed and analyzed, and programs are emergi which cater to their particular requirements.

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Current EAP **aims**, therefore, at capturing thicker descriptions of language use in the academy at all age and proficiency levels, incorporating and often going beyond immediate communicative

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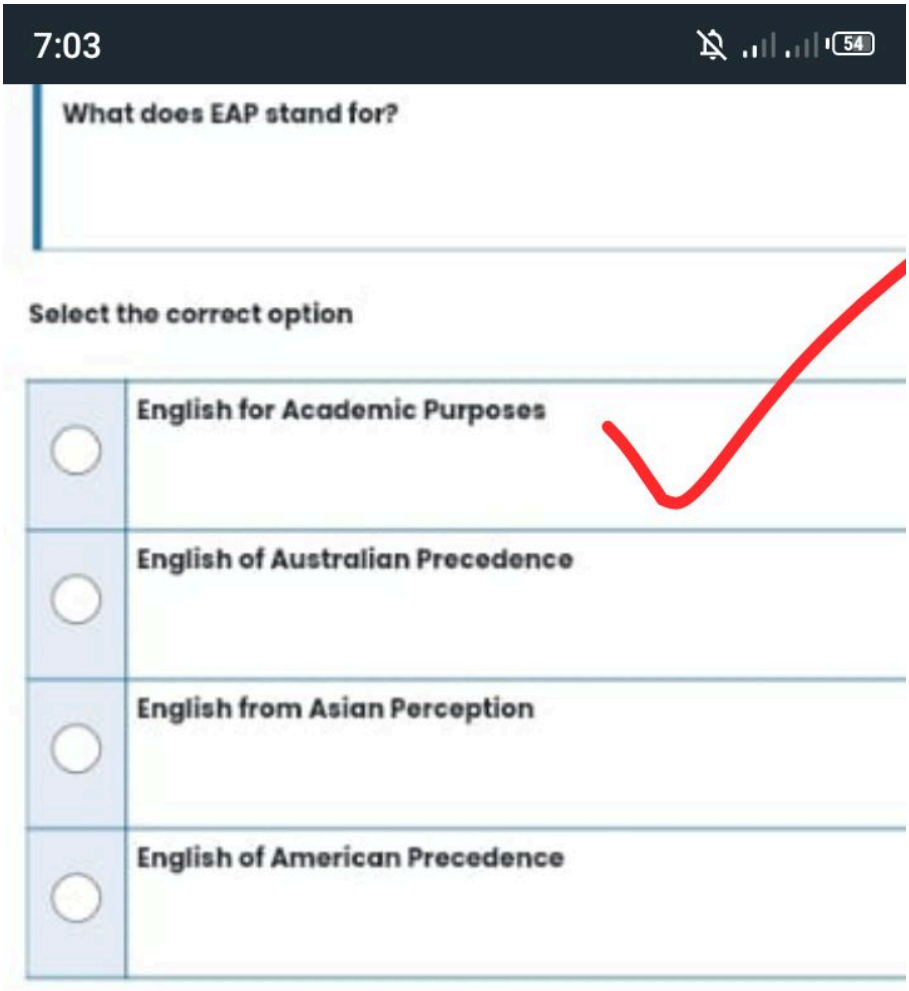


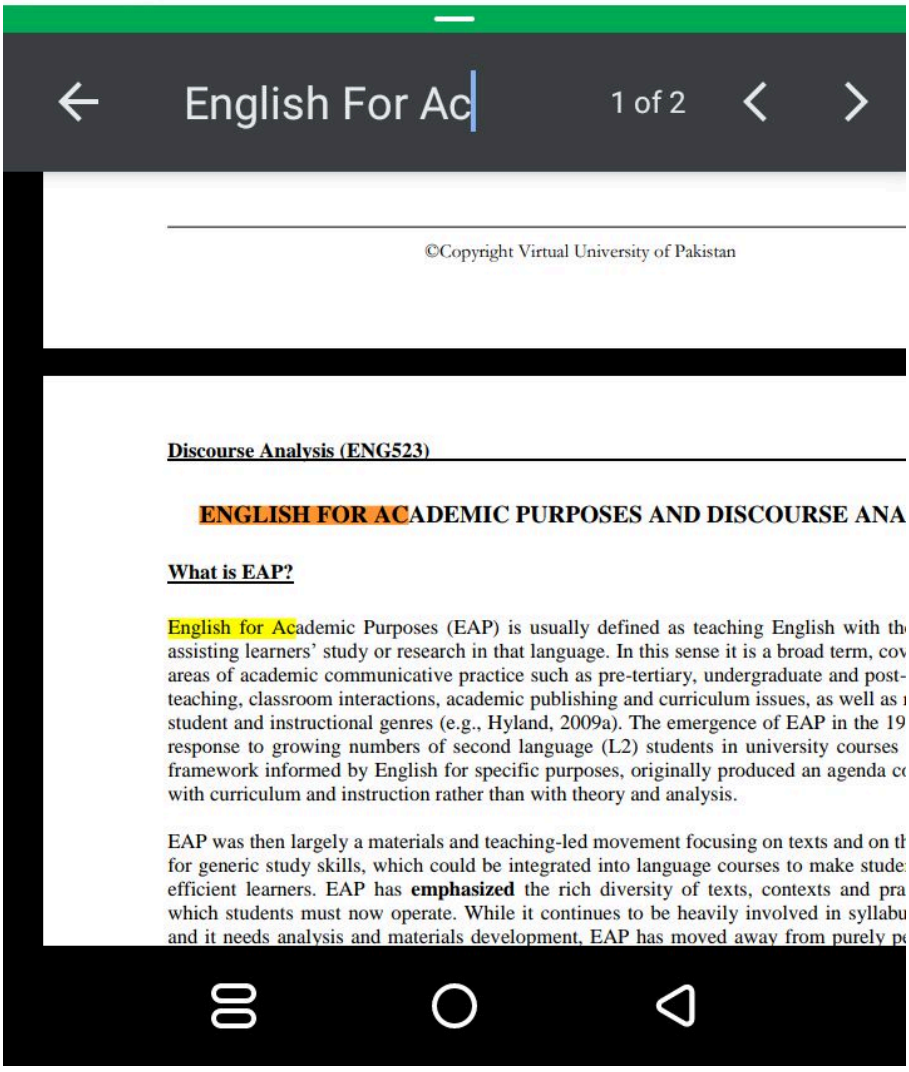
Modality

The term modality" subsumes a range of concepts within the fields of philosophy, morphology, syntax, semantics, and discourse analysis. Philosophy deals with modality primarily as it applies to categories of logic and to logical reasoning, and while some of the terminology used in philosophical studies of modality is borrowed into other disciplines, these terms are not always used in the same ways or for the same purposes in other disciplines. As Sulkunen and Törrönen explain, for linguists, the logical treatment of modalities is too narrow, because it is centered on truth values of propositions. Linguistic analysis of modalities presents much more diversity in its problematic and approaches" (1997). For their part, linguistic studies of modality can be located in a variety of linguistic sub-disciplines.

Specifically, morphology describes the lexical forms in which modality is manifested in different languages, syntax describes the complex syntactic configurations in which modality may be manifested, and semantics identifies modal meanings and explores the variety of ways these meanings may be expressed morphologically, syntactically, phonologically, and pragmatically.
This paper, however, takes a discourse analytic approach, specifically a critical discourse analytic approach, employing the concept of modality to characterize the political orientation of two sample texts.
Within critical discourse analysis, modality is understood as encompassing much more than simply the occurrence of overt modal auxiliaries such as ***may, might, can, could, will, would,***

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7:03
What does EAP stand for?
Select the correct option
English for Academic Purposes
English of Australian Precedence
English from Asian Perception
English of American Precedence


English For Ac
1 of 2
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Discourse Analysis (ENG523)
ENGLISH FOR ACADEMIC PURPOSES AND DISCOURSE ANA
What is EAP?
English for Academic Purposes (EAP) is usually defined as teaching English with th
assisting learners' study or research in that language. In this sense it is a broad term, cov
areas of academic communicative practice such as pre-tertiary, undergraduate and post-
teaching, classroom interactions, academic publishing and curriculum issues, as well as
student and instructional genres (e.g., Hyland, 2009a). The emergence of EAP in the 19
response to growing numbers of second language (L2) students in university courses
framework informed by English for specific purposes, originally produced an agenda c
with curriculum and instruction rather than with theory and analysis.
EAP was then largely a materials and teaching-led movement focusing on texts and on th
for generic study skills, which could be integrated into language courses to make stude
efficient learners. EAP has emphasized the rich diversity of texts, contexts and pra
which students must now operate. While it continues to be heavily involved in syllabu
and it needs analysis and materials development, EAP has moved away from purely p

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ENG523 - Discourse Analysis (Quiz-4)

Question # 1 of 10 (Start time: 06:21:22 PM, 25 January 2023)

The study of phonemes and their articulation is called _____ level.

Select the correct option

- intonation
- introductory
- experiential
- segmental



DISCOURSE ANALYSIS AND PHONOLOGY

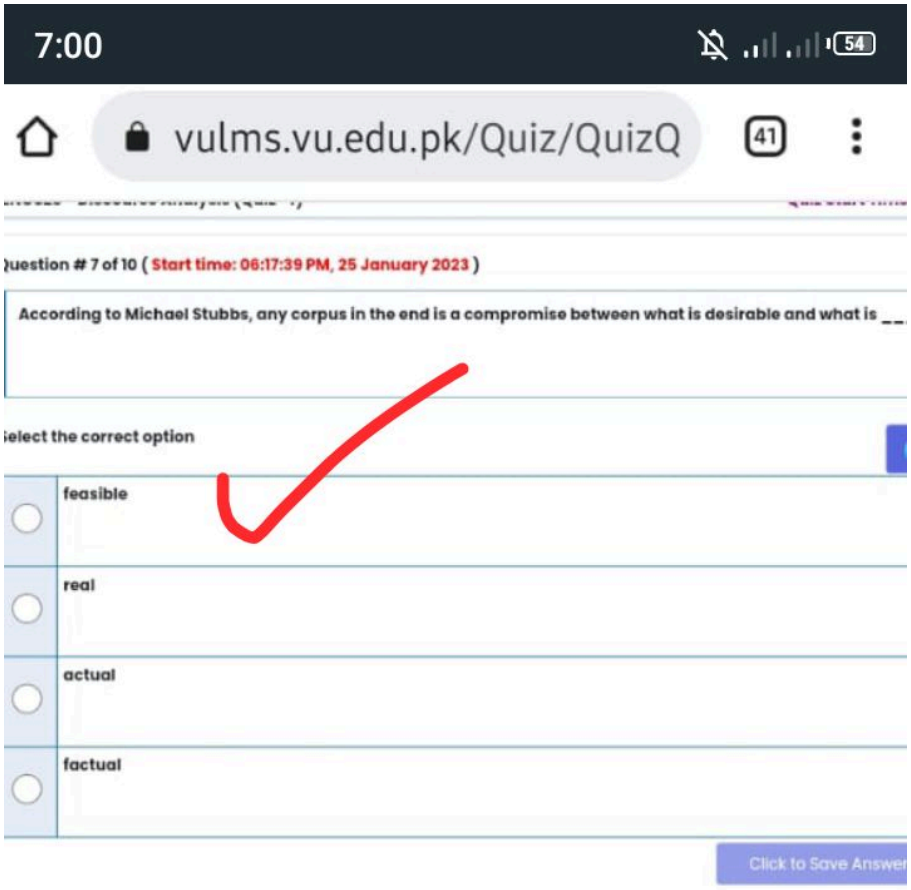
Pronunciation and rhythm

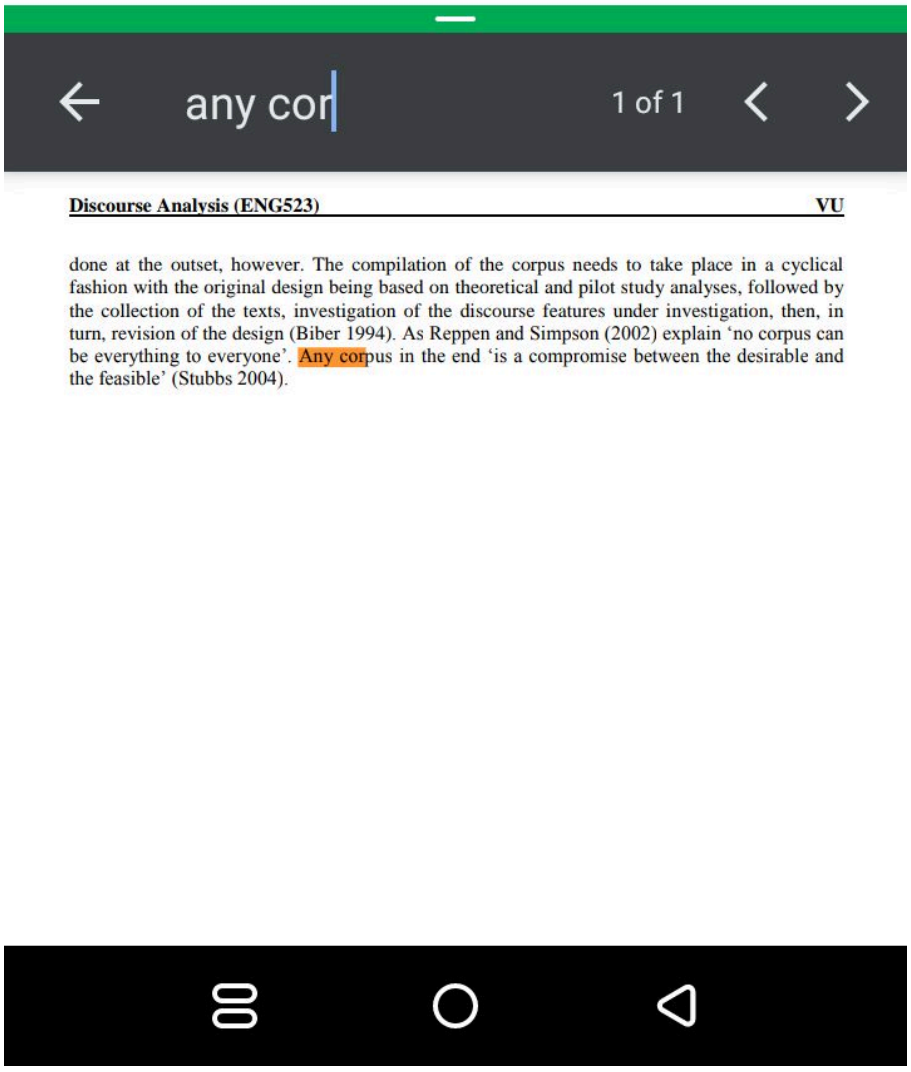
Under the heading of phonology in this chapter we shall take a brief look at what has traditionally been thought of as 'pronunciation', but devote most of our attention to intonation. This is partly because the most exciting developments in the analysis of discourse have been in intonation studies rather than at the segmental level (the study of phonemes and their articulation) and partly because intonation teaching, where it has taken place, has proceeded on the basis of assumptions that are open to challenge from a discourse analyst's viewpoint.

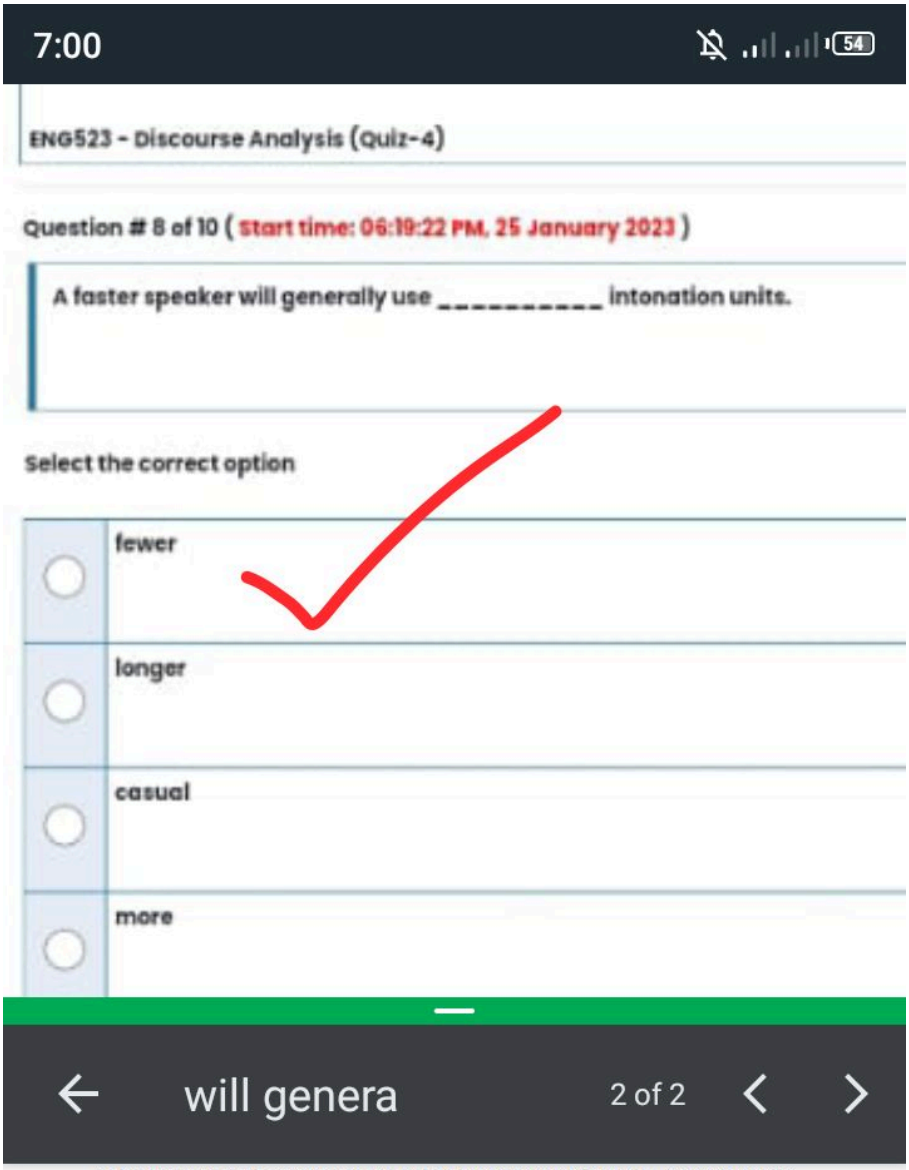
Traditional pronunciation teaching has found its strength in the ability of linguists to segment the sounds of language into isolated items called phonemes which, when used in the construction of words, produce meaningful contrasts with other words (e.g. the phonemes **/p/** and **/b/** in English give us contrasts such as pump and bump, pat and bat, .etc.), The position and manner of articulation of phonemes in a language like English are well described and can be presented and practiced in language classes either as isolated sounds, in words, in contrasting pairs of words or in minimal contexts.

Such features will probably long remain the stock-in-trade of pronunciation teaching and, if well done, can undoubtedly help leaners with difficulties. When words follow one another in speech, phonemes may undergo considerable changes. Good advanced learners of English use assimilations and elisions naturally, but a surprising number of quite advanced learners continue to articulate the citation-form phonemes of English words in casual, connected speech.

This will not usually cause problems of communication but is undoubtedly a contributing factor in 'foreign accent', and there may be a case for explicit intervention by the teacher to train students in the use of the most commonly occurring assimilations and elisions by practicing


7:00
vulms.vu.edu.pk/Quiz/QuizQ
41
Question # 7 of 10 (Start time: 06:17:39 PM, 25 January 2023)
According to Michael Stubbs, any corpus in the end is a compromise between what is desirable and what is __
Select the correct option
feasible
real
actual
factual
Click to Save Answer


any cor
1 of 1
Discourse Analysis (ENG523) VU
done at the outset, however. The compilation of the corpus needs to take place in a cyclical fashion with the original design being based on theoretical and pilot study analyses, followed by the collection of the texts, investigation of the discourse features under investigation, then, in turn, revision of the design (Biber 1994). As Reppen and Simpson (2002) explain 'no corpus can be everything to everyone'. Any corpus in the end 'is a compromise between the desirable and the feasible' (Stubbs 2004).



or how many a single sentence contains, but there are clues. Generally, intonation units:

- begin with faster speech, and end with slower speech
- include a single pitch word
- end with a pitch boundary

Intonation units and emotion

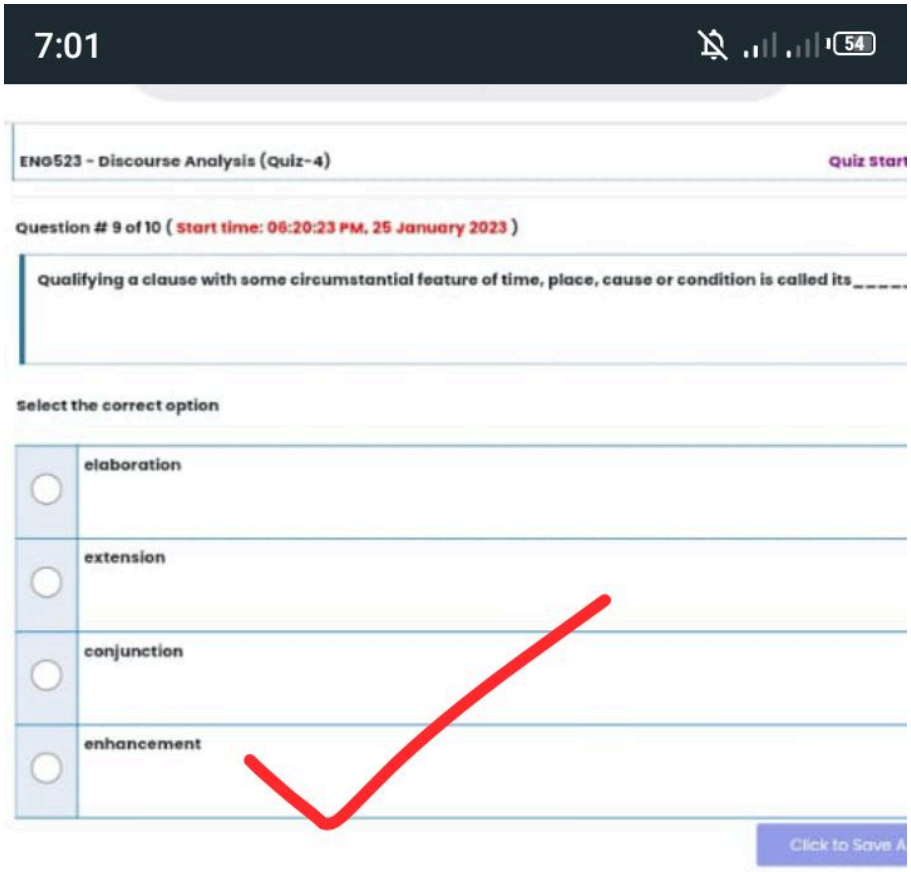
Individual speakers alter the number of intonation units they use. Some of this is based on individual patterns and habits, but speakers also alter intonation units based on emotion. A faster speaker will generally use fewer intonation units and may be seen as being more urgent, frantic, excited, and anxious. A slower speaker may have more intonation units and may be perceived as being more emphatic, determined, and insistent. Of course, these are the extremes, and most people normally speak somewhere in the middle range.

Elements of intonation units

Sentences can often be broken up into multiple intonation units. Each intonation unit usually has a single pitch word and ends in a pitch boundary. Each pitch word conveys information to the listener, and each pitch boundary helps organize how speakers take turns speaking.

Similar sentences can have a different number of intonation units. The end of each intonation unit is marked with a hash (/) and the pitch words are bolded. Notice that the speaker with fewer intonation units spoke faster, with fewer pauses, and with fewer changes in pitch during the statement. The sentence with more intonation units sounds more emphatic and deliberate about what is being said. More intonation units can cause the entire conversation to occur more slowly.

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link by adding to the presupposed item divided into positive (*and, also, moreover, in addition*) and negative (*nor*). **Adversative**t is conjunction which relates two clauses that state contras each other (Kridalaksana, 1993). It acts also to indicate contrary to expectation and signaled by *but, yet, on the other hand, however*. **Variation** includes replacive 'instead', subtractive 'except' and alternative 'or' types.

- **Replacive:** *on contrary, instead*
- **Subtractive:** *apart from that, except*
- **Alternative:** *alternatively*

3) Enhancement

Enhancement means one clause expands another by embellishing around it by qualifying it with some circumstantial feature of time, place, cause or condition (Halliday, 1985).

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DISCOURSE ANALYSIS AND GRAMMAR-II

Theme and rhyme

Most learners, when learning the grammar of a foreign language, spend time assimilating the structure of clauses in that language, i.e., where subjects, objects and adverbials are placed in

6:59

Question # 6 of 10 (Start time: 06:16:17 PM, 25 January 2023)

Who studied the language of personal ads on the World Wide Web?

Select the correct option

- Ken Hyland
- Suson Hunston
- Nigel Harwood
- Vincent B. Y. Ooi

of personal a 1 of 2

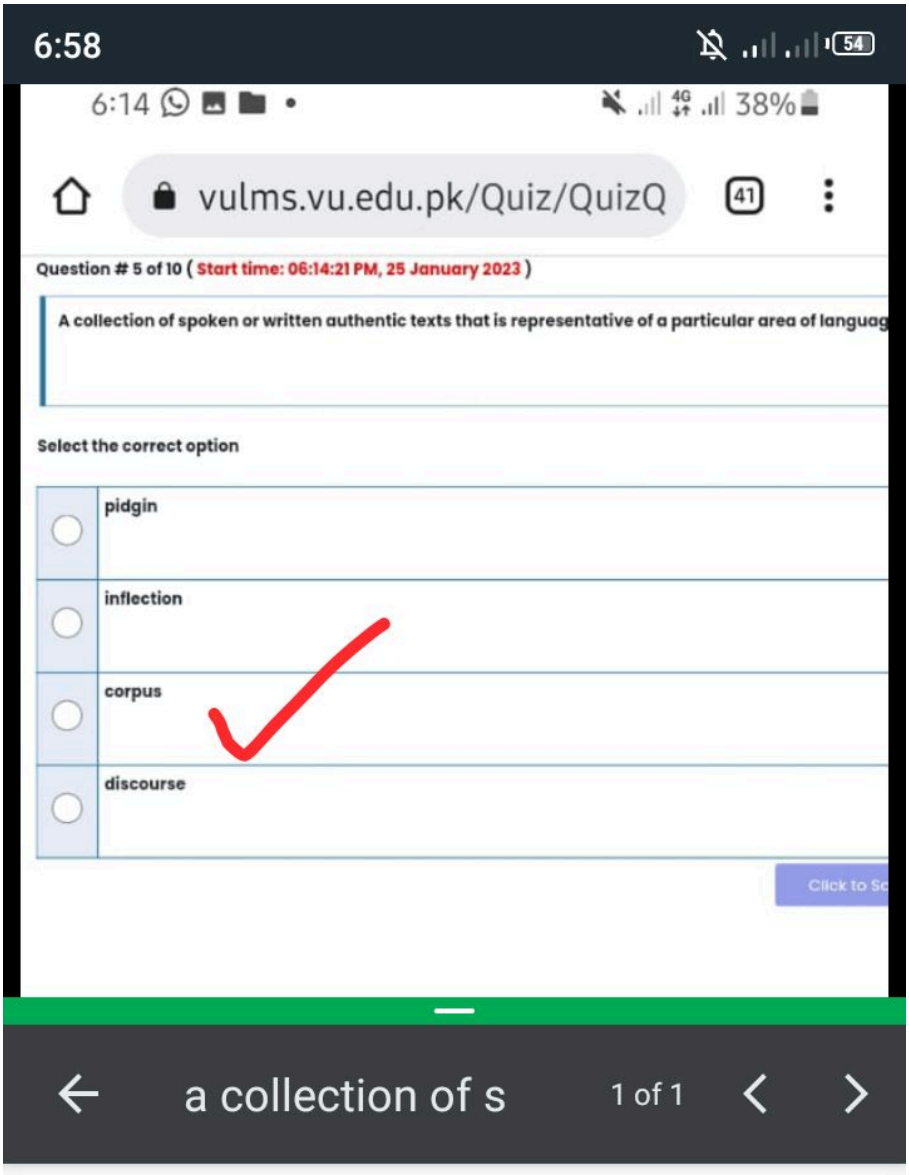
Harwood (2005) also compiled his own corpus for his study of the use of the personal pronouns *I* and *we* in journal research articles. For his study, Harwood selected research articles from electronic versions of journals as well as manually scanned articles and converted them to text format. His analysis of his data was both quantitative and qualitative. The quantitative analysis examined the frequency of writers' use of *I* and *we* in the texts and the disciplines in which this occurred. The qualitative analysis examined the use of *I* and *we* from a functional perspective; that is, what the function was of these items in the texts, as well as possible explanations for their use. He then compared his findings with explanations of the use of *I* and *we* in published academic writing textbooks.

A further example of a researcher-compiled corpus is Ooi's (2001) study of the language of personal ads on the World Wide Web. Ooi had to make up his own corpus to see how people use language in this particular genre. A large-scale corpus of language use on the world wide web, in general, would not have told him this. 'Off the shelf' corpora and custom-made corpora, then, each have their strengths, and their limitations.

The choice of which to use is, in part, a matter of the research question, as well as the availability, or not, of a suitable corpus to help with answering the question. It is not necessarily the case, however, that a custom-made corpus needs to be especially large. It depends on what the purpose of collecting the corpus is. As Sinclair (2001) has argued, small manageable corpora

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can be put together relatively quickly and can be honed to very specific genres and very specific



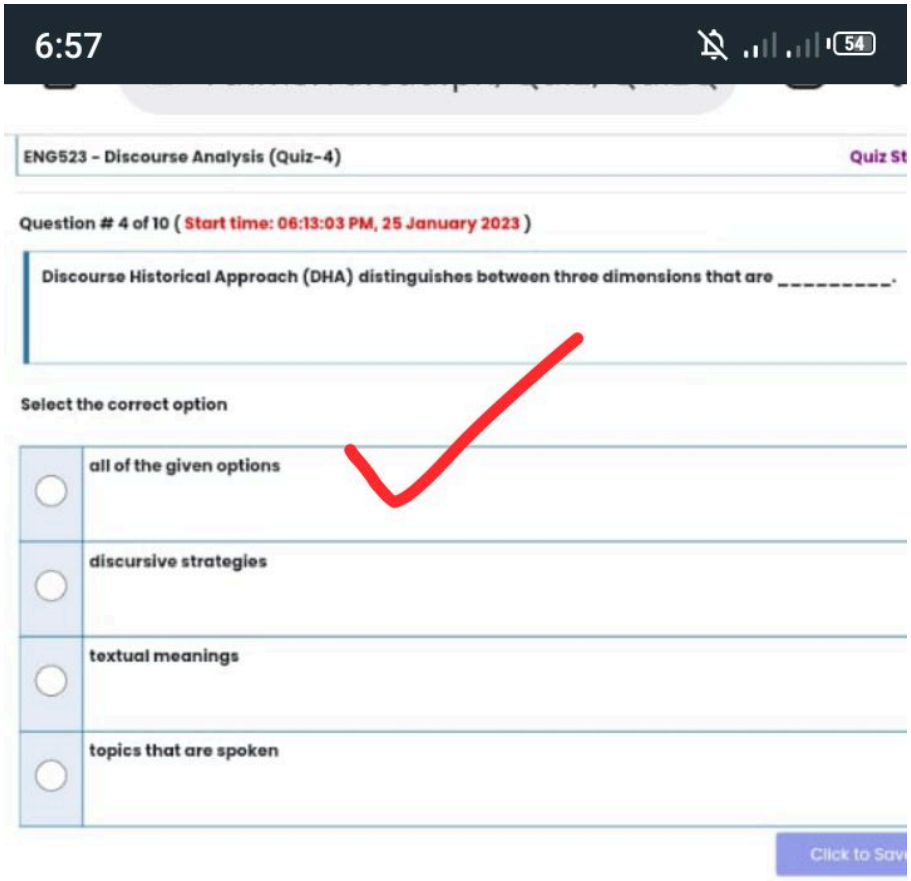
CORPUS APPROACHES TO DISCOURSE ANALYSIS

What is corpus and design of Corpora

Before discussing corpus-based approaches to discourse analysis it is necessary to define what a corpus actually is. It is generally assumed that a corpus is a collection of spoken or written authentic texts that is representative of a particular area of language use, by virtue of its size and composition. It is not always the case, however, that the corpus is representative of language use in general, or even of a specific language variety, as the data set may be very specialized (such as material collected from the internet) and it may not always be based on samples of complete texts. The data may also be only of the spoken or written discourse of a single person, such as a single author's written work. It is important, then, to be aware of the specific nature and source of corpus data so that appropriate claims can be made from the analyses that are based on it (Kennedy 1998, Tognini-Bonelli 2004).

A corpus is usually computer-readable and able to be accessed with tools such as concordances which are able to find and sort out language patterns. The corpus has usually (although not always) been designed for the purpose of the analysis, and the texts have been selected to provide a sample of specific text-types, or genres, or a broad and balanced sample of spoken and/or written discourse (Stubbs 2004).

> ***"Corpus studies draw on collections of texts that are usually stored and analyzed electronically. They look at the occurrence and re-occurrence of particular linguistic features to see how and where they occur in the discourse. They may look at words that typically occur together (collocations) or they may look at the frequency of particular items. Corpus studies may look at language use in general, or they may look at the use of a particular linguistic feature in a particular domain, such as***





compromises are staged and enacted thereafter on front-stage.

Pragmatic–linguistic expertise becomes salient in the discourse analysis of daily (political) interactions: much knowledge is regularly presupposed in every interaction (Goffman, 1981; Wodak, 2009a: 45ff.). Misunderstandings occur when presuppositions or other indirect pragmatic devices either are not available or differ significantly. Sharing presupposed and inferred meanings and hence including or excluding others in strategic ways is, I believe, constitutive of political power play and of achieving one's aims in the political arena (Jäger and Maier 2009).

The discourse-historical approach

DHA provides a vehicle for looking at latent power dynamics and the range of potential in agents, because it integrates and triangulates knowledge about historical, inter-textual sources and the background of the social and political fields within which discursive events are embedded. Moreover, the DHA distinguishes between three dimensions that constitute textual meanings and structures: the topics that are spoken/ written about; the discursive strategies employed; and the linguistic means that are drawn upon to realize both topics and strategies (e.g. argumentative strategies, topoi, presuppositions – see below for an extensive discussion).

Systematic qualitative analysis in the DHA takes four layers of context into account: the inter-textual and inter-discursive relationships between utterances, texts, genres and discourses; the extra-linguistic social/sociological variables; the history and archaeology of texts and organizations; and institutional frames of the specific context of a situation (the specific episodes under investigation). In this way we are able to explore how discourses, genres and texts change due to socio-political contexts, and with what effects (see Wodak, 2001).

Furthermore, two concepts are salient for analyzing the backstage of politics: inter-textuality refers to the linkage of all texts to other texts, both in the past and in the present. Such links can be established in different ways: through continued reference to a topic or to its main actors; through reference to the same events as the other texts; or through the reappearance of a text's main arguments in another text. The second important process is labeled contextualization. By taking an argument, a topic, a genre or a discursive practice out of context and restating/realizing it in a new context, we first observe the process of de-contextualization, and then, when the

6:56

Question # 1 of 10 (Start time: 06:08:38 PM, 25 January 2023)

An intonation unit is a _____ of speech.

Select the correct option

- type
- feature
- segment
- property

difference? This takes place in order to differentiate in environment – superimpositior intonation (degree of prominence) and it is also the part of the formality of a language.

For the learner of English, information about which syllables may be prominent is useful; it natural part of the lexical competence of native speakers. In this regard, the traditional distinc between primary stress and secondary stress (see above) may be misleading, and it may .be n helpful simply to indicate to the learner which syllables are prominent. Otherwise, the lea may be misled into thinking that primary and secondary stress must be maintained at all costs

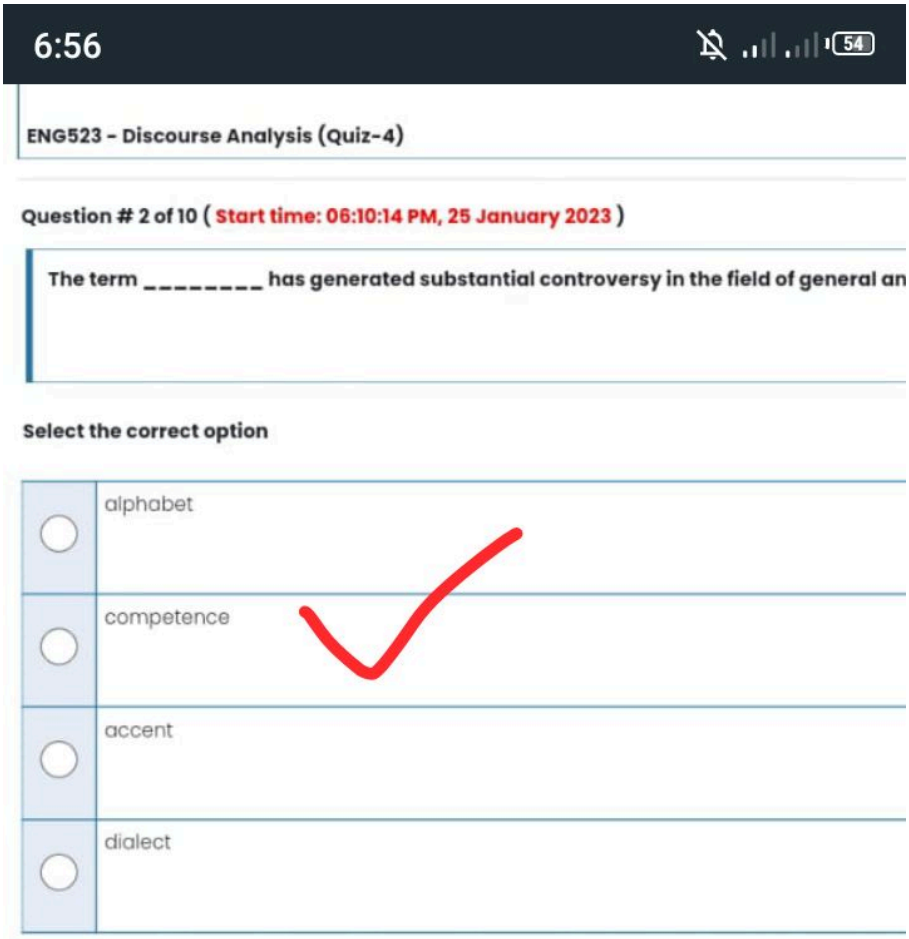
Intonational units

Intonation units are an important component of American English pronunciation and spe An **intonation unit** is a segment of speech. It can be as small as a single word, or as long sentence. Two sentences with identical grammatical structure may be comprised of diffe numbers of intonation units when spoken, based on the intent or emotional state of the spea It's important to learn to distinguish these units because they give subtle meanings and l organize a conversation. There is no single determiner as to where intonation units begin and or how many a single sentence contains, but there are clues. Generally, intonation units:

- begin with faster speech, and end with slower speech
- include a single pitch word
- end with a pitch boundary

Intonation units and emotion

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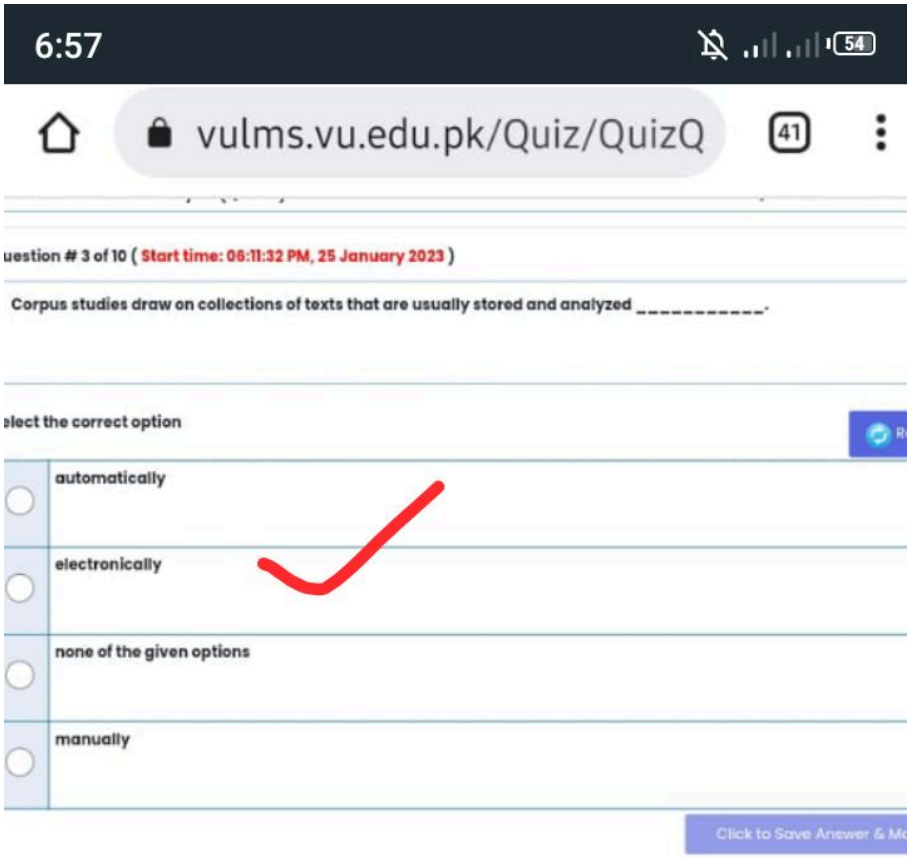
whatever it is presupposing, and when it is accompanied by a reference item (Halliday and Hasan, 1976: 280-1). **For example:** There's a boy climbing the old elm. That old thing isn't very safe (Halliday and Hasan, 1976: 280). Here, the reiteration takes the form of a general word thing.

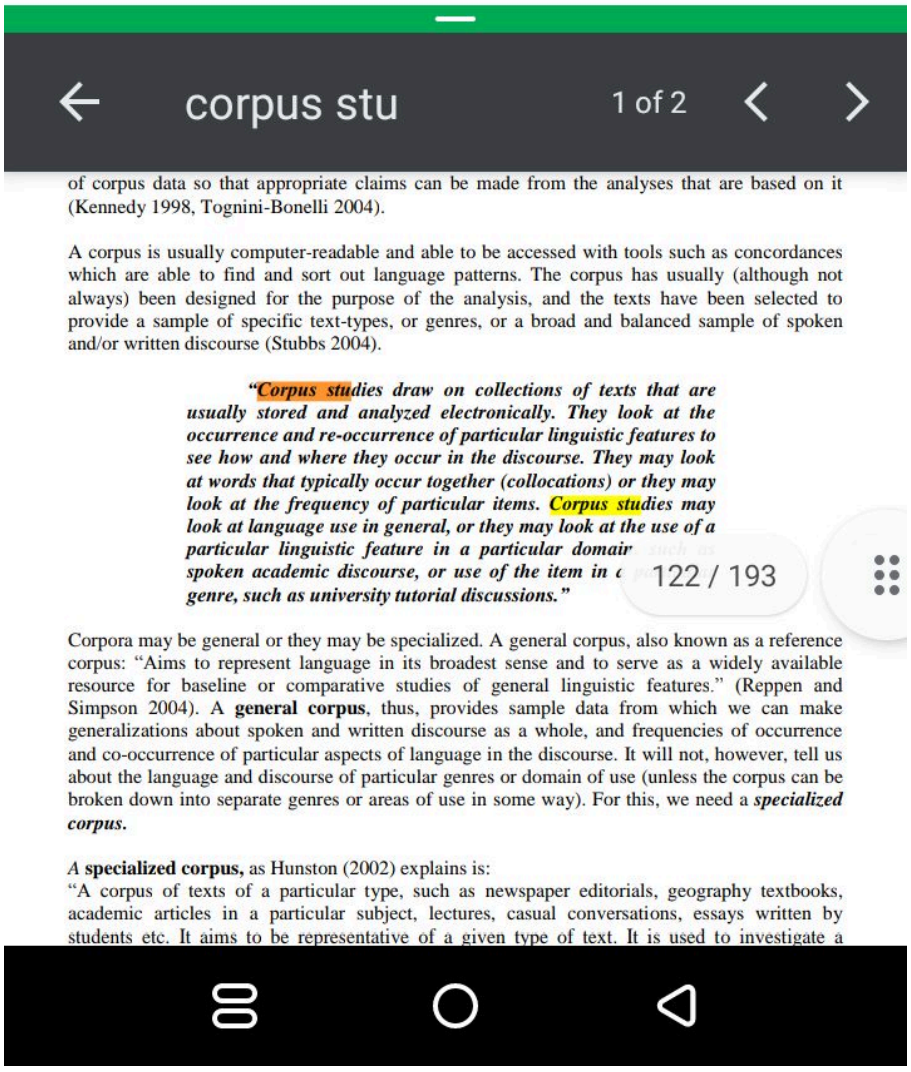
Textual aspects of lexical competence

Prior to undertaking the concept of lexical competence, it is worth defining what competence is and how it has been viewed so far. The term competence has generated substantial controversy in the field of general and applied linguistics (Chomsky, 1965; Hymes, 1972). The former regarded it as a pure grammatical competence, that is, "the speaker hearer's knowledge of his language" and the latter observed that this competence was more related to communication: a normal child acquires knowledge of sentences not only as grammatical, but also as appropriate. He or she acquires competence as to when to speak, when not, and as to what to talk about with whom, when, where, in what manner. In short, a child becomes able to accomplish a repertoire of speech acts, to take part in speech events, and to evaluate their accomplishment by others (Hymes, 1972).

A somewhat different type of lexical relation in discourse is when a writer or speaker rearranges the conventional and well-established lexical relations and asks us, as it were, to adjust our usual conceptualizations of how words relate to one another for the particular purposes of the text in question. In one way or another, our expectations as to how words are conventionally used are disturbed. A simple example is the following extract from a review of a book on American military planning. Sometimes our expectations as to how words are conventionally used are

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Corpus studies draw on collections of texts that are usually stored and analyzed _____.
elect the correct option
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electronically
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of corpus data so that appropriate claims can be made from the analyses that are based on it (Kennedy 1998, Tognini-Bonelli 2004).
A corpus is usually computer-readable and able to be accessed with tools such as concordances which are able to find and sort out language patterns. The corpus has usually (although not always) been designed for the purpose of the analysis, and the texts have been selected to provide a sample of specific text-types, or genres, or a broad and balanced sample of spoken and/or written discourse (Stubbs 2004).
"Corpus studies draw on collections of texts that are usually stored and analyzed electronically. They look at the occurrence and re-occurrence of particular linguistic features to see how and where they occur in the discourse. They may look at words that typically occur together (collocations) or they may look at the frequency of particular items. Corpus studies may look at language use in general, or they may look at the use of a particular linguistic feature in a particular domain
spoken academic discourse, or use of the item in
genre, such as university tutorial discussions."
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Corpora may be general or they may be specialized. A general corpus, also known as a reference corpus: "Aims to represent language in its broadest sense and to serve as a widely available resource for baseline or comparative studies of general linguistic features." (Reppen and Simpson 2004). A general corpus, thus, provides sample data from which we can make generalizations about spoken and written discourse as a whole, and frequencies of occurrence and co-occurrence of particular aspects of language in the discourse. It will not, however, tell us about the language and discourse of particular genres or domain of use (unless the corpus can be broken down into separate genres or areas of use in some way). For this, we need a specialized corpus.
A specialized corpus, as Hunston (2002) explains is:
"A corpus of texts of a particular type, such as newspaper editorials, geography textbooks, academic articles in a particular subject, lectures, casual conversations, essays written by students etc. It aims to be representative of a given type of text. It is used to investigate a